



The paradox of privilege: The downsides of masculinity for men and organizations

Ashley E. Martin ^{*}, Seung Joo Yoo

Stanford University, United States

ARTICLE INFO

Keywords:

Masculinity
Men
Gender Stereotypes
Workplace Inequality

ABSTRACT

Gender research in organizational behavior has primarily focused on understanding and addressing the disadvantages women face in masculine work environments. While this body of work has been essential to understanding gender inequality in the workplace, it has left a critical gap: examining how masculinity both shapes and constrains men's experiences and outcomes. This paper reverses the traditional focus of gender research in organizational behavior by arguing that masculinity is not only a source of advantage; it is also a system of traits, expectations, and values that imposes psychological and social costs on men. Drawing from interdisciplinary research across organizational behavior, psychology, and sociology, we argue that aspects of masculinity—such as stoicism, risk-taking, aggression, self-reliance, ambition, and dominance—are simultaneously organizationally rewarded as well as personally harmful. These expectations contribute to men's poorer mental health, weaker social support networks, higher rates of self-harm, and greater exposure to physical danger. Moreover, while these aspects of masculinity are thought to drive organizational and societal growth, success, and power, they can also produce exclusionary cultures that undermine employee well-being. This paper argues that gender equity efforts must account for how masculinity shapes men—not only in the ways it enables their power but also in the ways it restricts their well-being. Addressing the double-edged nature of masculinity is not a diversion from gender progress but rather is an essential step toward creating healthier individuals, organizations, and societies.

Introduction

Gender inequality is a complex, persistent issue in organizations, and women face disadvantages in many domains: They are underrepresented in positions of power across the world (United Nations, 2025), they receive lower pay (Catalyst, 2020), they experience backlash (i.e., social and economic penalties; Rudman & Phelan, 2008; Rudman et al., 2012), and they face multiple forms of bias (Heilman, 2012). Thus, it is only fitting that most research in organizational behavior and management has been devoted to improving and advancing the experiences and outcomes of women in organizations. Over the past few decades, this work has shed light on the biases women face in evaluations (Eagly & Karau, 2002; Schein, 2001), the double binds women navigate in leadership (Rudman et al., 2012), and the structural disadvantages embedded in everyday organizational practices (Correll, 2004). Yet this empirical pursuit has come at a cost: “Gender” research in management has largely meant a focus on women, and in particular, the disadvantages they face. Meanwhile, men remain the assumed beneficiaries of

power and prestige, and the costs of those experiences remain largely unexamined.

This paper seeks to reverse that focus and show how men's masculine “privilege” shapes their experiences and identities at work and beyond. It argues that the same aspects of masculinity (e.g., stoicism, dominance) that confer structural advantages to men also bind them to narrow and often damaging ideals, thus limiting them from experiencing the benefits of femininity (e.g., greater vulnerability, empathy) that lead to a psychologically rich and healthy life. Although men are typically associated with many of the masculine ideals that are rewarded at work—such as assertiveness, rationality, and ambition—these same ideals promote certain assumptions and expectations that harm relationships, suppress emotional experiences, and engender risky and dangerous behaviors (Eagly & Karau, 2002; Steinberg & Diekmann, 2016). For example, there are expectations that men sacrifice themselves for others (FeldmanHall et al., 2016), work long hours, and in dangerous situations (Martin, 2025), suppress their emotions (Brescoll, 2016), defend themselves and others through physical aggression (Uskul et al., 2023), and

^{*} Corresponding author at: 655 Knight Way, Stanford, CA 94305, United States.
E-mail address: ashley.martin@stanford.edu (A.E. Martin).

refrain from asking for material or emotional support (Addis & Mahalik, 2003). Further, expectations promoting men's masculine behavior—and discouraging feminine behavior—contribute to the fact that men have fewer and weaker friendships, more unhealthy coping behaviors, and are more likely to harm, kill, and derogate others (Archer, 2019). These expectations of masculinity prevent many men from being allies, partners, and supporters of women and have detrimental consequences for men themselves.

This paper proceeds as follows. First, it briefly summarizes how organizational research has typically studied gender, demonstrating that most of the organizational research discusses men's masculine advantages and the costs of these advantages for women. It argues that while the field has long highlighted the mismatch between feminine stereotypes and masculine work environments, the alignment between men and these environments also carries costs—for men themselves, for organizations, and for society at large. The paper then moves towards providing a more complete picture of masculinity: the way it has been conceptualized and studied, and why it is unique. The paper examines five aspects of masculinity—stoicism and rationality, risk-taking and aggression, toughness and self-reliance, career ambition and work devotion, and power and dominance—that are often seen as workplace advantages; instead, this paper highlights their darker consequences. These consequences range from the way men are seen—as devoid of emotion and experience—to the expectations imposed on them, which detrimentally affect their physical, psychological, and emotional well-being. These consequences, we argue, have implications not only for men but for organizations and nations as well. Finally, the paper offers recommendations for interventions and future research.

To be clear, this work does not aim to discount the vast body of research on gender that studies women's experiences and discrimination, nor does it aim to paint men as simply victims; rather, it aims to generate a better understanding of men's psychology, their experiences, and their constraints. In doing so, this paper attempts to understand men's gender advantage as a double-edged sword: The outcomes that privilege men, in other words, also come at a psychological, relational, and societal cost. Addressing the benefits, constraints, and effects of masculinity should not be seen as a diversion from women's advancement: It is a necessary step towards it.

Gender research in organizational behavior: what we focus on and what's missing

Men receive many organizational advantages. Men (compared to women) are more likely to be in positions of leadership and political power (Catalyst, 2020; United Nations, 2025), to own wealth (World Bank, 2022), and to receive funding in entrepreneurial ventures (Pitchbook & National Venture Capital Association, 2016). Even when employed in the same position, women are paid less (IWPR, 2024), are less respected, and are offered fewer opportunities (Lyneess & Heilman, 2006). It shouldn't be surprising, therefore, that research in organizational behavior has tackled "gender" from the vantage point of *women's disadvantage*.

This organizational disadvantage is said to stem from gender stereotypes, centering around *masculinity* and *femininity*. Gender stereotypes are shared and consensual beliefs about what men and women are like (descriptive) and how they should behave (prescriptive) as well as how they should not behave (proscriptive; Heilman, 2001; Heilman & Eagly, 2008; Prentice & Carranza, 2002). Attributes and roles that are associated with men revolve around *masculinity*, a cluster of traits and behaviors involving self-interest, goal-pursuit, achievement, and dominance; conversely, attributes and roles that are associated with women revolve around *femininity*, a cluster of traits involving other-focus, social orientation, and a desire for acceptance, connection, and community (Martin & Slepian, 2021, 2025). While this may be a cursory definition, suffice it to say that men are assumed to, rewarded for, and often do enact behaviors that highlight their individuality, that focus on their

achievement, and that pursue their own power. Meanwhile women are assumed to, rewarded for, and often do enact behaviors that highlight their relationality, that focus on their connection, and that prioritize their community (Bem, 1974; Martin & Slepian, 2021).

These stereotypes distinctly favor men in organizations since the characteristics associated with men—independence, decisiveness, and competitiveness—overlap with the qualities associated with leaders (see Eagly & Karau, 2002; Schein, 2001). As such, men are seen as prototypical leaders (Schein et al., 1996) and more competent in positions of power and status (Eagly & Karau, 2002). Furthermore, prescriptively, people expect men and women to conform to—and not violate—these stereotypical expectations. Thus, when women demonstrate their competence, through stereotypical masculine behavior, they face “backlash,” being disliked, excluded, and even sabotaged for violating gender stereotypes (Rudman & Glick, 2001; Rudman & Phelan, 2008; Rudman et al., 2012; Williams & Tiedens, 2016). Indeed, these beliefs and expectations are argued to be the “primary cause” of gender inequality in organizations (Heilman, 2001; p. 657): They lead people to assume men are more competent, leaderlike, and assertive—and then reward them for behaving in these ways. In contrast, women are more likely to be overlooked and assumed to be incompetent, yet when they do demonstrate their competence, they are penalized.

Given gender disparities in organizations and the robust evidence for stereotypes that favor men, hundreds of papers in the field of organizational behavior alone have been devoted to understanding the experience of women and addressing barriers to their advancement (see Eagly et al., 2012; Ely & Meyerson, 2000; Joshi et al., 2015). In this domain, men have either been understood as a barrier to women's advancement or neglected altogether. For example, Joshi et al. (2015) reviewed 50 years of research on gender in organizational behavior and over 100 papers on gender in *Academy of Management Journal*, and they found four major themes: “70s: acknowledging the plight of women,” “80s: identifying and understanding [women's] barriers,” “90s: identifying even more barriers” “2000s: sex differences, dissimilarity, and diversity.” The theories and outcomes understood by scholars were almost entirely devoted to understanding issues that women face (e.g., stereotypes, discrimination, tokenism, mentorship). In a separate review, Ely and Meyerson (2000) identified four dominant themes in how gender is discussed within the field of organizational behavior: fixing the women, valuing the feminine, creating equal opportunities, and revising work culture, all of which discuss and intervene on masculine cultures that favor men. Looking more broadly to the field of psychology, most gender research discusses key topics and barriers that women face. For every paper on men, there are three that focus on women (Eagly et al., 2012).

It thus appears that gender scholarship has spent decades studying these negative outcomes through the lens of masculinity, given that the rewards associated with masculinity are precisely what hinder women's success across many domains. And while men may benefit in their careers, being more likely to attain rank, prestige, higher pay, occupational status, among others, those who identify and demonstrate elements of masculinity—competitiveness, aggression, dominance, self-reliance—also experience more stress (Mahalik et al., 2003) and anger (Jakupcak et al., 2005), take on greater risk (Vandello & Bosson, 2013), have fewer deep and emotional ties (Levant et al., 2009; 2013), and face poorer mental health (Wong et al., 2017). Indeed, it seems that the same qualities and traits that may gain a person power can also serve to undermine a psychologically rich and healthy life. The next part of this review turns to the duality of masculinity and its consequences.

What is masculinity and why is it unique?

What is masculinity? The question seems simple enough, but the answer is anything but. Masculinity (along with femininity) has been deemed among the “muddiest” terms in the psychologists' vocabulary (Spence & Buckner, 2012), while others have noted that “a man can

Table 1
Masculinity dimensions across the literature.

Dimensions of Masculinity	Citations
No Sissy Stuff • Avoid femininity • Conceal emotions	
Big Wheel • Breadwinner • Admiration and respect	
Sturdy Oak • Toughness • Self-reliance	Brannon Masculinity Scale Brannon, 1976
Give ‘Em Hell • Violence and adventure	
Status Norms • Status and respect	
Toughness Norms • Self-reliance • Emotional/Physical toughness	Male Role Norms Scale Thompson & Pleck, 1986
Anti-Femininity • Avoidance of feminine practices	
• Avoidance of femininity • Restrictive emotionality • Achievement/Status • Aggression • Self-reliance • Fear and hatred of homosexuals • Attitudes towards sex	Male Role Norms Inventory Pleck, 1995
• Winning • Emotional control • Risk-taking • Violence • Dominance • Playboy • Self-reliance • Primacy of work • Power over women • Disdain for homosexuals • Pursuit of status	
• Putting work first • Showing no weakness • Having strength and stamina • Being dog-eat-dog	Conformity to Masculine Norms Inventory Mahalik et al., 2003
• Anti-femininity • Self-reliance • Aggression • Achievement/Status • Restrictive emotionality	
	Masculinity Contest Culture Glick et al. (2018)
	Male Role Norms Levant et al., 2008

proceed from infancy all the way to senility without ever knowing what manhood means” (Abbey, 1989, p. 40). The elusiveness of masculinity stems, in part, from its multifaceted nature: it encompasses descriptive (trait-based), prescriptive (norm-based), and contextual (culture-based) components. But put as simply as possible, masculinity is a set of traits that empirically distinguish men from women (“trait perspective”), a set of norms about how men should act (“normative perspective”), and a set of culturally shared beliefs about the value of those traits across people (e.g., men vs. women) and contexts (e.g., organizations, institutions; “the cultural perspective”).

Many would argue that the *content* of masculinity—the traits that define what it means to be a man—varies with historical and cultural context (Gilmore, 1990; Kimmel, 1996). And yet, many traits that underlie masculinity are quite stable across history, time, and cultures (Wood & Eagly, 2012). Most cultures have identified a set of traits, qualities, and expectations that maximally differentiate “men” from “women” and that constitute what it means to be a (real) “man,”

ordering men and boys along their degree of male-typicality (Lippa, 2016; Spence & Buckner, 2012; Vandello et al., 2008). From ancient philosophers such as Plato, Aristotle, and Confucius, to modern-day researchers, scholars have identified remarkably similar content that characterizes masculinity (across many societies): status-seeking, achievement, independence, confidence, competitiveness, physical activity, instrumentality, decisiveness, courage, stoicism, rationality, dominance, risk-taking, aggression, and the eschewal of femininity in behavior, speech, and emotion (Bem, 1974; Cicone & Ruble, 1978; Pleck, 1981; Terman & Miles, 1936; Spence & Heimrich, 1979). The consistency of these gender stereotypes is said to derive from the reproductive and social roles men and women have historically taken on, where men were more involved in hunting and defending—requiring “masculine” traits, such as competitiveness, dominance, and independence—and women were responsible for child-bearing and child-rearing—requiring “feminine” traits, such as nurturance, warmth, and compassion (Eagly et al., 2020; Ellemers, 2018).

These masculine traits, which describe men and manhood, set the stage for normative expectations about how men should behave. That is, a traditional man, in *trait* terms, actually *has* culturally defined masculine characteristics. From a *normative* perspective, however, the traditional man is one who *endorses* beliefs and ideologies that suggest men *should* have these characteristics (Thompson et al., 1992). By this approach, masculinity is captured by measuring beliefs about what a man is supposed to be, to want, and to succeed in doing (Brannon, 1976; Thompson & Pleck, 1986). There are certain common themes, such as beliefs that men should avoid femininity, conceal emotions, be the breadwinner and in financial control, be admired and respected, be emotionally and physically tough, and be aggressive and self-reliant (Brannon, 1976; Levant & Fischer, 1998; Luyt, 2005; Thompson & Pleck, 1986). Table 1 presents components of masculinity found across the literature (also see Thompson & Bennett, 2015 for review).

From a cultural perspective, masculinity is understood as a set of values established by men in power that functions to include or exclude and to organize society in gender unequal ways (Connell, 1987; Connell, 2005; Connell & Messerschmidt, 2005; Jewkes et al., 2015). Indeed, since most societies have been shaped by men and for men, many cultures and institutions value these masculine qualities, such as independence, risk-taking, and assertiveness, over feminine ones, such as empathy, kindness, and supportiveness (Cheryan & Markus, 2020). These traits are particularly valued because they serve to maintain men’s dominance and power (Bem, 1993). In this sense, masculinity is always embedded in power—both in men’s power over women, but also in men’s power over other men. Indeed, the way in which masculinity is ascribed and valued intersects with social identities such as race, sexuality, and gender identity, and privileges some men over others—typically white, heterosexual, cisgender, able-bodied, and middle- to upper-class men (Connell & Messerschmidt, 2005; Schrock & Schwalbe, 2009). Notably, the legitimization of masculinity, both in ideology and culture, endures not through force or coercion; it operates through cultural norms, beliefs, and values so that this dominance is seen as natural and legitimate, and further, is accepted and reinforced by familial, societal, and cultural institutions (Connell, 1987; Kilduff, 2000).

At a cultural level, prioritizing masculinity serves to maintain men’s power over women; however, it also leads to dynamics of tension, competition, and power struggles among men themselves. As a consequence, masculinity becomes precarious and ambiguous as well as something that must be continually proven (Vandello et al., 2008). That is, even if a man conforms to masculine norms in a particular situation, masculinity is not “achieved” in any stable sense (Vandello & Bosson, 2013); manhood must be earned, and it must be continually maintained through publicly verifiable actions. Given the precariousness of manhood, boys in many cultures and contexts learn early in life that they must rigidly conform to a set of restrictive gender rules or risk punishment, bullying, and negative evaluations (Bem, 1993; Vandello et al., 2008).

Together, the descriptive (i.e., traits), prescriptive (i.e., norms), and contextual (i.e., culture) facets of masculinity serve multiple functions: They impose gendered traits onto men, socialize men to enact masculinity through reward and punishment, and normalize men's masculinity through cultural and societal institutions.

Components of masculinity

We next focus on several aspects of masculinity that are core to the construct and reflect actual gender differences. Though this list is far from exhaustive, it captures aspects of masculinity that confer men advantages at work while also inflicting costs to their relational and psychological wellbeing. These include: (1) stoicism and rationality, (2) toughness and self-reliance, (3) aggressiveness and risk-taking, (4) power and superiority, and (5) career ambition and work devotion. We first review the gendered nature of these components before moving on to the benefits and costs of masculinity for men. See Table 2 for the definition of each aspect as well as the traits and norms that underlie them.

Stoicism and rationality

One component of masculinity discussed across the literature is that being “a man” requires men to be unemotional. Indeed, the stereotype that women are more emotional than men is one of the strongest people hold (Brescoll, 2016), and men are expected to be less emotional than women (Prentice & Carranza, 2002). A robust body of literature has found that women are more likely than men to experience, express, and dwell on their emotions, particularly emotions that signal vulnerability or relational concern, such as sadness, fear, guilt, happiness, and compassion (Brody & Hall, 2008; Chaplin & Aldao, 2013; Kring & Gordon, 1998; Simon & Nath, 2004). Boys are taught from early

childhood that men should control, restrict, or suppress their emotions, with the exception of anger and pride (i.e., status-signaling emotions; Chaplin et al., 2005; Kilmartin, 2005). Due to these norms, men are significantly more likely than women to exhibit *alexithymia*—the difficulty in identifying and describing one's own emotional states (Levant et al., 2003; Mendia et al., 2024). Researchers have shown that this gender difference is largely due to the internalization and endorsement of masculine expectations (Berger et al., 2005; Levant et al., 2003).

These masculine expectations to withhold emotional expression are not only held by men themselves but are expected by others too. That is, for men, expressing any emotions that signal vulnerability (e.g., fear, distress, shame) is heavily stigmatized (Gaia, 2013), and men who engage in emotional vulnerability suffer a “wimpiness penalty” (Heilman & Wallen, 2010). As one example, people viewed a male employee relations counselor (an occupation that requires empathy and compassion) as a worse leader, afforded him less respect, and rated him as less desirable as a boss than an identical woman (Heilman & Wallen, 2010). In another experiment, a man who cried in response to negative feedback received lower performance evaluations, weaker written recommendations, and a worse assessment of leadership ability than his female counterpart (Motro & Ellis, 2017). Similarly, in one study, men were viewed as more competent when they restrained emotion compared to when they actively displayed (or never felt) the emotion (Zawadzki et al., 2013). More recently, another experiment revealed that men were seen as more intelligent and more emotionally competent when they restrained emotion whereas this expectation did not exist for women (Hess et al., 2016).

Toughness and self-reliance

The expectation that men not express feelings or show vulnerability is also related to expectations that they “act tough” and be self-reliant

Table 2
Dimensions of masculinity.

Dimension of Masculinity	Definition	Traits	Norms
Stoicism & Rationality	The expectation that men suppress emotions, avoid showing vulnerability, and maintain a controlled demeanor.	Stoic Unemotional Unexcitable Rational Logical Analytical	• ‘Emotions are alright for women, but men are not like that.’ • ‘Men should not show their emotions in public.’ • ‘Men should avoid physical affection with other men.’ • ‘A man should be rational.’
Career Ambition & Work Devotion	The expectation that men actively pursue achievement and prioritize career success.	Achievement-oriented Ambitious Career-oriented Status-seeking Industrious	• ‘Measuring a man's success based on their work and career is the easiest way of seeing how much money or how much power a man has.’ • ‘Success in his work has to be a man's central goal in this life.’
Toughness & Self-Reliance	The expectation that men endure hardship without seeking help and meet their needs independently.	Strong Sturdy Tough Brawny Self-sufficient Independent	• ‘A man must stand on his own two feet and never depend on other people to help him do things.’ • ‘When a man is feeling a little pain he should try not to let it show very much.’ • ‘A man should never admit when others hurt his feelings.’
Aggression & Risk-Taking	The expectation that men accept risk or danger and respond to challenges with assertive or antagonistic behavior.	Aggressive Competitive Risk-taking Courageous Daring Impulsive	• ‘Sometimes violent action is necessary.’ • ‘Fists are sometimes the only way to get out of a bad situation.’ • ‘A real man enjoys a bit of danger now and then.’ • ‘It is important for a man to take risks, even if he might get hurt.’
Dominance & Superiority	The expectation that men assert authority, maintain hierarchical advantage, and support group inequality.	Dominant Dictatorial Dogmatic Powerful Ruthless Leader-like	• ‘A man should always be the boss.’ • ‘Men should assert their opinions even if others disagree.’ • ‘Men must be willing to fight to protect their family.’ • ‘A man must earn high income for his family.’

(Addis & Mahalik, 2003). That is, men should not rely on other people for support and affection or to meet many of their psychological, physical, or emotional needs. Because toughness is an essential aspect of masculinity, men who identify with masculine traits are less likely to report physical and psychological pain and to more likely to avoid behaviors that could be perceived as weak or dependent, such as expressing pain or seeking help (Addis & Mahalik, 2003; Courtenay, 2000). Men are, for example, less likely than women to report physical pain (Courtenay, 2000) and are more likely to delay or avoid seeking medical or psychological care, especially for issues related to mental health (Addis & Mahalik, 2003; Courtenay, 2000).

Several studies have linked men's endorsement of masculine ideology—beliefs that men should embody traditional masculine norms—to their reluctance to seek help (Good & Wood, 1995; Wisch et al., 1995). For instance, findings among male undergraduates have shown that stronger internalization of gender roles is associated with more negative attitudes toward seeking professional psychological help (Good et al., 1989; Robertson & Fitzgerald, 1992). Masculine expectations to display toughness and self-reliance are not only internalized by men themselves, but they are also imposed on men by others. For example, research has found that healthcare providers were more likely to underestimate men's pain, compared to women's, suggesting an expectation that men should "tough it out" (Hoffmann & Tarzian, 2001). Further, a male patient who behaved passively with a therapist was viewed as less likeable and as suffering from more serious emotional problems than an identical female patient (Costrich et al., 1975). Finally, in experimental work, studies have shown that a male applicant who asked for help and feedback on an idea was perceived as weaker, more insecure, and less leaderlike than a comparable female applicant (Moss-Racusin et al., 2010). Thus, the perception that men should tough it out and be self-reliant is a standard held by others who judge them as well as by men themselves.

Aggressiveness and risk-taking

Another dimension of masculinity widely discussed in the literature is the expectation for men to be aggressive and risk-taking (Bosson, 2025; Vandello & Bosson, 2013). Indeed, past research has confirmed that, compared to women, men identify as, and behave in ways that are, aggressive and risk-taking (Archer, 2019). Risk-taking involves choosing a course of action with uncertain outcomes, where at least one potential outcome is negative or undesirable (Weber et al., 2002). Indeed, men take greater risks than women across a wide range of domains (Byrnes et al., 1999; Croson & Gneezy, 2009; Eckel & Grossman, 2002). And this risk-taking is closely tied to the male gender role (Baker & Maner, 2009; Wilson & Daly, 1985). Men are more likely to engage in risky financial behavior (Barber & Odean, 1999), dangerous behaviors (e.g., not wearing seatbelts, speeding; Byrnes et al. 1999), high-risk sexual behavior (Reidy et al., 2016), and cheating and rule-breaking (Kray & Haselhuhn, 2012). They are also more likely to play extreme sports or do dangerous activities (e.g., sky-diving, combat sports; Harris & Jenkins, 2006). Further, men account for over 90% of the most dangerous occupations, such as roofing, logging, and mining—jobs with high fatality rates (Bureau of Labor Statistics, 2023). Research on precarious manhood demonstrates that risk-taking is an effective means of both restoring and maintaining manhood status since it helps men outcompete other men and is attractive to many women (Courtenay, 2000; Gilmore, 1990; Griskevicius et al., 2009). Experimentally, priming masculinity increases financial risk-taking (Meier-Pesti & Goetze, 2006) and gambling behavior (Weaver et al., 2013).

Aggressive behavior is one form of risk-taking since it exposes a person to potential harm, retaliation, or social punishment. In this way, it is inherently risky. People with a more masculine (i.e., dominant, agentic) gender identity tend to enact more direct aggression (Weisbuch et al., 1999). As such, boys and men learn to view aggression as an appropriate reaction to reputational challenges (Bosson et al., 2009).

When researchers measure motivation to uphold male gender role norms, they find that men who report greater conformity to those norms also display more general aggression (Amato, 2012; Berke et al. 2015), more sexual aggression (Locke & Mahalik, 2005), more antigay aggression (Vincent et al., 2011), and more physical aggression in the laboratory (Berke & Zeichner, 2016). Cultural scripts for masculinity often sanction aggression as an acceptable way of demonstrating manhood. Thus, boys and men learn not only that aggression is tolerated (e.g., when one needs to assert dominance) but also that aggression is expected of them when their gender identity has been threatened. For instance, after being induced to violate their gender role publicly by styling a mannequin's hair on camera, men demonstrated their aggression by throwing harder punches (Bosson et al., 2009). Other research has found that aggression is heightened among boys whose parents endorsed stereotypical beliefs about men's status and power (e.g., that men should have more power than people of other genders; Stanaland et al., 2024).

To both men and women, aggression is perceived as a way of being masculine (Brannon, 1976), attractive (Buss & Schmitt, 1993), honorable (O'Dea et al., 2025), and appropriate (Weaver et al., 2010). And in fact, adults expect more aggressive behavior from boys than they do from girls (Coyle et al., 2016). Further, research subjects viewed a man more positively when he physically retaliated against another man for accosting his girlfriend (O'Dea et al., 2017). In another study, boys (regardless of age) were penalized—being perceived as less honorable and "wimpier"—for failing to aggressively defend themselves against a bully (O'Dea et al., 2025). These perceptions are amplified for those who believe in the importance of the male gender role and masculinity (Saucier et al., 2016).

Power and superiority

Power, or the ability to control resources and influence behavior, is also a significant component of masculinity. Men indicate that power is a more important motivation than do women (Gino et al., 2015; Schuh et al., 2014). Men are also more likely to endorse beliefs in group-based hierarchy and anti-equality (Archer, 2019) and express prejudice across a host of measures and groups than are women (Bareket & Fiske, 2023; Sidanius et al., 1994). Indeed, masculinity requires a need to demonstrate male power and superiority, and men tend to do so through several means. Traditional masculinity is closely tied to the rejection of femininity and homosexuality, such that expressing prejudice—particularly homophobia—can function as a means of affirming masculine identity (Bosson et al., 2005). Research shows that men who strongly endorse traditional gender norms are more likely to express anti-gay attitudes, not necessarily because of personal animus, but because heterosexuality and dominance over femininity serve as core pillars of masculine status (Herek, 1986; Kimmel, 1996). When men's masculinity is being questioned or threatened, they become more likely to exhibit prejudiced behaviors, including heightened homophobia, as a way to reassert their gender status (Bosson et al., 2005; Vandello et al., 2008). In fact, Bosson et al. (2005) found that men who underwent a masculinity-threatening task (e.g., being told they were "feminine") were more likely to subsequently express homophobic attitudes. In this way, prejudice—particularly toward gay men—serves as a symbolic defense of traditional manhood, reinforcing rigid gender boundaries and sustaining gender hierarchies that harm both targets and perpetrators.

Experimental studies show that men whose masculinity comes under threat are more likely to endorse violence against women, engage in sexualized objectification, or view women as less human, particularly when those women are perceived as powerful or noncompliant (Bosson et al., 2009; Maass et al., 2003; Rudman & Mescher, 2012). These findings underscore that gender-based prejudice is not simply a reflection of individual bias but is often a strategic effort to perform masculinity in response to certain social pressures. In this way, precarious manhood dynamics reinforce a system in which dominance over women

serves as a compensatory mechanism, reproducing gender inequality and legitimizing interpersonal harm.

Men are also at risk of violating masculine expectations when they behave in egalitarian ways. They experience backlash, for instance, when they offer help and mentoring to talented women or when they support workplace diversity initiatives (Moss-Racusin, 2014; Prime et al., 2009). Further, men who expressed gender egalitarian beliefs encountered backlash—by being perceived as “feminine” “weak” and “gay”—compared to control targets who did not (Rudman et al., 2013). As Prime et al. (2009) note, although many of their male interviewees supported gender equality, they were also unlikely to publicly advocate those views since they feared being stigmatized by being seen as unmanly. Thus, the expectation that men should endorse power and superiority actively silences men who actually do support it.

Career ambition and work devotion

As outlined above, men are associated with traits such as ambition, career success, and achievement, and thus the pursuit and achievement of career success is seen as a notable element of manhood (Brannon, 1976; Thompson & Pleck, 1986). Indeed, status—for men—is achieved by having relative control over valued physical, social, and economic resources (e.g., Fiske & Berdahl, 2007). As such, the workplace is a primary location in which men attempt to secure their manhood and their dominance over women and other men (Britton & Logan, 2008). From an early age, boys are socialized to equate manhood with winning, dominance, and being a “provider,” which fosters an internalized pressure to pursue success at all costs (Mahalik et al., 2003; Vandello & Bosson, 2013). Research has found that financial prospects, ambition, industriousness, and social status are all more important to women when selecting a romantic partner than to men (Archer, 2019). Thus, men are both aware of and expected to attain career and financial success (Brannon, 1976; Thompson & Pleck, 1986).

This pursuit is frequently expressed through overwork and an unwillingness to disengage from demanding roles, even when it comes at the expense of well-being. Research shows that men are more likely than women to define self-worth through career success and are more prone to work long hours to maintain status, avoid appearing weak, or fulfill the breadwinner ideal (Pleck, 1981; Rudman et al., 2012). Indeed, men are more likely to work longer hours than women (Bureau of Labor Statistics, 2015) and to commit to overtime (OECD, 2024). Conversely, men who deprioritize work for other endeavors (e.g., family, personal) are more likely to be viewed as poor workers and thus to encounter organizational penalties, such as salary deductions and demotions. They are also less eligible for important rewards, such as raises and promotions (Brescoll et al., 2013; Rudman & Mescher, 2013).

The benefits of masculinity for men

Personal benefits of masculinity

In many ways, men benefit from personal identification and social expectations surrounding masculinity. In terms of identification, when men identify with masculine traits and express them in healthy doses, it can bring psychological benefits. For example, *stoicism and rationality*—as the ability to regulate and control one’s emotional experiences—can help men remain cognitively focused during times of stress or crisis (Heilman et al., 2010; Lerner et al., 2015). Especially in high-stress domains that involve risky decisions, stoicism and rationality reduce negative physiological responses, improve focus and attention, and have the potential to lead to better performance (Kirkham et al., 2025). Similarly, *self-reliance* can strengthen men’s sense of personal agency. Indeed, autonomy is a fundamental psychological need that is essential for human motivation and well-being (Ryan & Deci, 2000). When people rely on their own abilities and judgment, they naturally fulfill their need for autonomy, which promotes intrinsic motivation,

persistence, and mental health. Likewise, *toughness*, in some senses, can contribute to greater perseverance, resilience, and “grit,” which can lead to sustained attention, persistence, and goal-attainment (Duckworth et al., 2007; Duckworth & Gross, 2014).

Masculinity can also serve as a source of motivation. For instance, *power* often functions as a source of action. Experiencing power increases one’s tendency to take initiative, which can enable men to act decisively in the face of obstacles (Galinsky et al., 2003). Power can also enhance performance in such behaviors by prompting cognitive processes that prioritize goal-relevant information over extraneous cues (Galinsky et al., 2003; Smith et al., 2008). In this sense, power helps men translate intentions into action and obtain desired outcomes. Through *risk-taking*, men can engage in novel and challenging activities that promote self-expansion—the process of broadening one’s perspectives, skills, and identity (Aron & Aron, 1997; Mattingly & Lewandowski, 2013). By venturing beyond routine and by embracing challenge, risk-taking can encourage personal growth and heightened passion (Carswell et al., 2021). In this way, risk-taking supports men’s personal development and enriches their emotional well-being.

Furthermore, *ambition*, with its aspirational nature, is a crucial engine of workplace motivation. It fuels the pursuit of mastery and achievement, encouraging people to set high standards, persist through setbacks, and invest in long-term goals (Judge & Kammeyer-Mueller, 2012; Wigfield & Eccles, 1992). In fact, ambition is a strong predictor of income, occupational prestige, life satisfaction, and even longevity (Judge & Kammeyer-Mueller, 2012), making it one of the most consequential traits in both professional and personal domains.

Lastly, and perhaps most fundamentally, gender is a primary component of identity (Bem, 1993; Mischel, 1970; Wood & Eagly, 2015). People’s gender represents an important aspect of how they see themselves, contributing to their sense of self, their self-esteem, and their self-perception (Mischel, 1970; Schlegel et al., 2009; Turner et al., 1987). By identifying with masculinity—traits that are seen as culturally appropriate and valuable for men—men experience feelings of self-worth and belonging (Burkley et al., 2016; Wade, 1998). Further, feeling connected to, and respected by, other men can bring connection and meaning (Kennedy et al., 2021; O’Neill & Rothbard, 2017). Male-typical social roles such as fatherhood or breadwinner can serve as meaningful identity resources. Fatherhood, for instance, provides feelings of purpose, gratification, and reward, and it has been shown to enhance men’s meaning, happiness, and life satisfaction (Nelson et al., 2013). Similarly, the breadwinner role is socially valued and associated with perceptions of competence in many cultural and organizational settings (Vandello & Bosson, 2013). By fulfilling these roles, men can experience identity stability, social validation, and a sense of contribution to their loved ones—key components of a positive and coherent self-concept.

Thus, in healthy doses, men’s identification with and enactment of masculinity can bring personal and psychological benefits. But, most commonly, the benefits of masculinity have been largely discussed in the context of the social benefits it confers.

Social benefits of masculinity

As noted, masculinity is seen as necessary and valuable in organizational contexts. As such, in the organizational domain, men are conferred many social advantages. Indeed, many people believe that masculine cultures are indicators of high standards, excellence, and success (Berdahl et al., 2018; Vial et al., 2022). The fact that organizations value and reward masculine behaviors has implications for the way in which men and women are seen, understood, and rewarded in organizations. Since men are more likely to internalize these norms and traits (Bem, 1974) and are stereotyped in ways that reflect these qualities (Eagly & Karau, 2002), they are typically seen as better leaders at work.

As it relates to *stoicism and rationality*, many people believe that emotions (e.g., sadness, empathy) undermine the ability to prioritize organizational success above personal relationships or individual

feelings (Brescoll, 2016). Polls repeatedly find that many believe the primary reason why women occupy disproportionately fewer key leadership roles in business and politics is that they are “too emotional” (Dolan, 2014). With regards to *toughness and self-reliance*, people believe that these traits are core to leadership (Vial & Napier, 2018) and that these traits are more characteristic of men than women (Diekmann & Eagly, 2000); for example, they believe women are more likely to cry in response to negative performance feedback (Motro & Ellis, 2017) and need more help and support than do men (Shnabel et al., 2016). In terms of *aggressiveness and risk-taking*, many believe that effective leadership requires the ability to take risks and aggressively compete (Stam et al., 2018), and aggression and fear-induction is a primary path to higher social rank (Cheng et al., 2013). However, women are penalized when they behave in aggressive ways (Rudman et al., 2012). As it relates to *dominance and power*, men’s greater structural power leads to the development of policies and practices that maintain it; thus, the nature of work, power, and success reflects practices that advantage men and reinforce perceptions that men are better suited for these positions (Ely & Meyerson, 2000). Finally, with regards to *career ambition and work devotion*, many are likely to perceive men as ‘ideal workers’ who are willing to sacrifice family and personal responsibilities for opportunity, pay, and success (Reid, 2015).

The above reflections suggest that masculinity clearly advantages men in many ways. However, the same processes that privilege men also underlie a number of harms that men experience to a greater degree, seen most dramatically in rates of gun violence, homicide, loneliness, anhedonia, self-harm, and suicide (Archer, 2019). That is, expectations to suppress emotions, to be aggressive and impulsive, to be tough and self-reliant, to prioritize work above relationships, and to vie for (and maintain) power and status all lead to maladaptive coping, prohibit social support, put men in harm’s way, restrict men’s life experiences, and diminish their empathy and social connection. Thus, the next section focuses on the downsides of masculinity for men—in the way they are seen and the experiences they have—before moving on to the consequences for organizations and society.

The double-edged nature of masculinity: the costs of masculinity for men

Personal consequences

Emotional suppression and coping. Among the most well-documented personal consequences of masculinity norms is their impact on men’s emotional lives. Men are expected to restrict and suppress emotion, and much research finds that this is problematic for men. Research has consistently shown that threats to masculinity (e.g., being forced to engage in stereotypically feminine activities; being told that they are “unmanly”) elicit significant anxiety in men (Berke et al., 2017; Weaver et al., 2010). While these emotional responses to gender status threats can be managed through multiple means, they often lead to *suppressing* internal emotions like shame and *displaying* external ones, such as anger (Vandello et al., 2008).

The ability to recognize and feel emotions is related to the way in which men cope with emotional problems. Some gender role theories argue that men are more likely than women to engage in suppression, avoidance, or dysregulated responses, including turning to substances or self-harming (for a review, see Tamres et al., 2002). Because masculine norms discourage not only the expression but even the *experience* of emotions such as guilt and shame, men are more likely to engage in inward, self-destructive behaviors rather than seek help or support (Green et al., 2018; Green & Jakupcak, 2016). That is, men are more likely to turn to drinking and substance abuse as a coping mechanism (Nolen-Hoeksema, 2012) and are more likely to attempt suicide or engage in non-suicidal self-harm (Green & Jakupcak, 2016). Walther et al. (2023) found that after experiencing a job loss due to the economic shock of COVID-19, men who more strongly endorsed stereotypical

masculinity norms had an increased risk of suicide compared with men who were less invested in masculinity norms. Further, in regions that have dominant cultures that reflect traditional masculinity, men are more likely to have untreated depression and commit suicide (Crowder & Kemmelmeier, 2017).

Limited experiences and sources of meaning. Expectations around men’s ambition may elevate their professional status, but they also come with hidden psychological costs. Reid (2015) found that men often struggle with “put work first” expectations because they are expected to “pass” as ideal workers, even when they need flexible schedules. In this study, men were more likely than women to be expected to sacrifice personal and family commitments to meet work demands. As a result, men who faced these expectations reported concrete personal costs: missing important family moments, experiencing health problems, and even developing substance addictions—all stemming from these demands (Reid, 2015).

Indeed, people are more likely to think men derive meaning from work and that men *should be* primary breadwinners (Thompson & Pleck, 1986). Although research in organizational behavior has valorized work, ambition, and success, men are expected to prioritize these obligations over their families (Ridgeway & Correll, 2004). Family responsibilities have been framed as a burden on women (i.e., women are expected to take on more domestic care; Benard and Correll, 2010); however, the corollary is that our society expects men to take on more and longer hours at work, be less responsible for childcare, and to sacrifice personal concerns (Correll et al., 2007; Hays, 1996). Given that men are expected to work more, many end up missing out on important parts of life with family, friends, and personal pursuits. Two of the most common deathbed regrets, for instance, are spending too much time on work and not enough time with friends (Ware, 2019). And yet, men are expected to put in longer hours and sacrifice other commitments, and they receive backlash when they do not.

Help-seeking and social support. Toughness is seen an essential aspect of masculinity. Because of this, men who identify with masculine traits are less likely to report physical and psychological pain and to avoid behaviors that could be perceived as weak or dependent, such as expressing pain or seeking help (Addis & Mahalik, 2003; Courtenay, 2000). For example, men are less likely than women to report physical pain (Courtenay, 2000) and are more likely to delay or avoid seeking medical or psychological care, especially for issues related to mental health (Addis & Mahalik, 2003; Courtenay, 2000). Research shows that men are less likely to access preventive care, disclose chronic pain, or engage in treatment for conditions like depression or injury, which can increase health risks (Mahalik et al., 2003). For instance, men are fifty percent more likely to die by suicide in the U.S. compared to women (CDC, 2025). In this way, the cultural mandate for male toughness not only harms individual well-being but reinforces a precarious model of masculinity that discourages vulnerability and promotes maladaptive coping strategies. Indeed, men are often characterized as unwilling to ask for help when they experience problems in life (Addis & Mahalik, 2003). Men are also less likely than women to seek help for problems as diverse as depression, substance abuse, physical disabilities, and stressful life events (Husaini et al., 1994; McKay et al., 1996; Padesky & Hammen, 1981; Thom, 1986).

Masculinity not only discourages help-seeking in times of distress but also constrains opportunities for learning and growth, such as asking questions, requesting feedback, or admitting uncertainty—all essential behaviors for developing competence at work (Ashford et al., 2003; Vandello & Bosson, 2013). Research shows that men are less likely than women to seek support or mentorship in professional settings, which may hinder their ability to adapt to new challenges or improve performance through social learning (Addis & Mahalik, 2003; Wong et al., 2017).

Further, components of masculinity such as stoicism and self-reliance can prevent men from having intimate and meaningful relationships. Research has shown that strong and significant social connection

are related to psychological and physical health: Isolation and loneliness are as harmful as smoking and obesity, and social relationships are one of the most consistent predictors of subjective well-being across cultures (Diener & Seligman, 2002; Holt-Lunstad et al., 2010). Women tend to maintain more emotionally intimate and supportive relationships, which are strongly linked to well-being whereas men's networks are often more instrumental and activity-based (Taylor et al., 2000), making men vulnerable to social isolation and experiencing greater health risks from insufficient social ties (Courtenay, 2000).

Harm to self and others. Although men are encouraged to suppress most emotions, anger—a status-signaling emotion—is a significant exception (Brody & Hall, 2008). Indeed, anger is said to underlie men's aggressive behavior and impulsivity, both of which have implications for men's health and life-expectancy. For one, the precarity of masculinity causes stress and anxiety, since masculinity requires men to either suppress feelings or outwardly direct it towards others (in the form of anger; Vandello & Bosson, 2013). Both anger and stress have a host of negative physical consequences, including increasing a person's heart rate, elevating their blood pressure, releasing stress-hormones (Suinn, 2001; Suls & Bunde, 2005) and constraining cognitive processes (i.e., narrowing attention, increasing impulsivity; Lerner & Keltner, 2001).

These personal consequences are borne out quite demonstrably in empirical research. Men, on average, die five years earlier than women (U.S.A. Facts, 2025). Men are more likely to die of stress-related diseases (e.g., heart attacks), suicide, and preventable accidents (U.S.A. Facts, 2025). Further, these physical and emotional responses are said to underlie self- and other-destructive behavior. For example, anger and emotional dysregulation are said to underlie men's aggressive behavior and impulsivity (i.e., risk-taking; Berke et al., 2018). Past research has found that gender-role stress and aggression (i.e., intimate partner violence) is mediated by men's difficulties regulating emotions (Berke et al., 2019). Adolescents who experience stress, specifically related to demonstrating masculinity, were more likely to engage in violence (Reidy et al., 2018), and adults who experience this same form of stress report higher lifetime frequency of engagement in assaults with a weapon and assaults causing injury (Reidy et al., 2014). Further, the anxiety brought on by masculine role stress is strongly correlated to risky behavior, such as substance use and unprotected sex (Reidy et al., 2016). Moreover, men account for over 91% of all workplace fatalities and are significantly overrepresented in dangerous occupations (e.g., roofing, logging, hunting; Bureau of Labor Statistics, 2023). Finally, over 80% of homicides around the world are committed against men (World Health Organization, 2019)—the majority of which are also perpetrated by men (UCR, 2019).

Social consequences of masculinity

Across the literature in organizational behavior, the components of masculinity discussed throughout this paper have largely—almost holistically—been seen as sources of advantage for men. However, these exact same traits that benefit men in terms of accruing power, status, and resources, also have social costs: They lead men to be less liked and seen as less “human,” ultimately diminishing people's empathy, protection, and care towards men. That is, people see feminine traits as more important, valuable, and positive when evaluating others, and women, overall, are evaluated more positively as a social group due to their associations with these traits (Eagly et al., 1991; Eagly & Mladinic, 1989). This evaluative advantage emerges across cultures: More positive attitudes toward women than men were documented in a seven-country investigation (Glick et al., 2004). Indeed, in terms of seeing men as “human,” men (compared to women) are less likely to be seen as capable of experiencing emotion, pain, having complex wants and needs, and men are seen as more threatening, impulsive, and authoritarian (Martin, 2025). These stereotypes have consequences for the ability to see men as fully human. These consequences are discussed next.

Masculine stereotypes and mechanistic dehumanization.

Objectification—the lowering of a person, a being with humanity, to the status of an object—has been discussed for centuries, originally grounded in debates over labor and morality (Kant, 1996; Marx, 1964). For the most part, the objectification literature has focused on women's sexual objectification; rather than being seen as full human beings, women are reduced to their body or body parts and seen as tools for men's sexual pleasure (Fredrickson & Roberts, 1997; Pecini et al., 2023).

However, the components that comprise masculinity are curiously related to the process of objectification, and in particular, instrumentality: the use of a person to achieve a goal (Nussbaum, 1999; Orehek & Weaverling, 2017). Research has found that capacities such as the ability to feel (i.e., pain, sadness) and express (i.e., empathy, compassion) emotion are core elements of being “human” (Haslam, 2006; Haslam & Loughnan, 2014). So, when individuals are perceived as lacking these qualities, they are mechanistically dehumanized or objectified—seen as objects devoid of emotion, as machines that serve a singular purpose, or as tools for getting things done (Haslam & Loughnan, 2014). Key components of masculinity—such as expectations that men restrict emotions, display toughness (and not feel pain), and put their efforts towards production and efficiency—are also all components of objectification and are likely to lead to men being seen as less fundamentally and uniquely human (Haslam, 2006; Haslam & Loughnan, 2014; Martin, 2025).

Importantly, people feel more comfortable exploiting individuals or groups they see as objectified: They deny them empathy, moral concern, or individual regard (Bastian & Haslam, 2010). Recent research has shown that masculine traits are more commonly used to describe objects than feminine ones and that individual men are more likely to be seen as disposable, serving as means to an end, and discardable once no longer useful (Martin, 2025). Similarly, people ascribe human capacities (i.e., the ability to plan, experience, and feel) more so to women than to men (Loughnan et al., 2010). Further, even when experiencing the same harm (e.g., robbery, personal loss), people feel less compassion, sympathy, and concern for people who are seen as societally advantaged (i.e., those who have more status and resources; Lucas & Kteily, 2018). Indeed, past research has shown that people feel more comfortable putting men in dangerous situations and sacrificing men, compared to women (FeldmanHall et al., 2016). Thus, stereotypes that men do not experience emotions lead to the perception that men are less fundamentally human, incapable of experiencing pain and other real, human experiences.

There is also reason to believe that the social roles men are expected to take on—and *do* take on—are similarly objectified. Workplaces, for example, are seen to require self-interest, competition, and autonomy—all characteristics that lack human cooperation and connection (Abele & Wojciszke, 2007) and that are more typically associated with men than women (Eagly et al., 2020). Research has found that people are more likely to objectify others in workplace contexts compared to social ones (Belmi & Schroeder, 2021) and that people are more willing to exploit and objectify workers who lack communal traits (Stanley & Kay, 2024). When workers were described as “unemotional,” for instance, participants were more likely to believe those employees should work overtime and complete extra assignments for no reward as well as be assigned to unsafe environments and unhealthy work conditions (Stanley & Kay, 2024). In these studies, the regard and respect for employees' time and boundaries were not considered.

Masculine stereotypes and animalistic dehumanization. Stereotypes about men's aggressive and impulsive behavior have consequences for the way men are seen and treated. Aggressive behavior—that is, any behavior intended to hurt another living being (Anderson & Bushman, 2002; Bosson, 2025)—leads others to experience threat, intimidation, and fear (Anderson & Bushman, 2002). When a target is seen as unable to control their impulses, this perception of threat and danger is exacerbated. The perception of men as more aggressive and risk-taking likely contributes to what scholars call animalistic dehumanization—a process in which individuals are seen as

lacking self-control and are therefore likened to animals (Haslam, 2006). The traits that are culturally believed to distinguish humans from animals, such as emotional regulation and moral sensibility, are more often associated with women than with men (Eagly et al., 1991; Martin, 2025). As a result, men are seen as more violent, aggressive, threatening, and morally depraved than are women (Martin, 2025).

When people animalistically dehumanize others, they are more likely to perceive those others as threatening and feel less empathy toward them, and concomitantly, they are more willing to endorse punitive actions, including aggression, social exclusion, and even violence (Goff et al., 2008; Viki et al., 2013). For example, when people see others as threatening and intimidating, they are more likely to avoid contact (Cottrell & Neuberg, 2005; Payne, 2001), use unnecessarily aggressive responses (Martínez et al., 2022), and punish them more severely (Cottrell & Neuberg, 2005; Goff et al., 2008). Men are often described using animalistic terms such as “brutes,” “pigs,” or “dogs,” which reflect underlying perceptions of them as physically dominant yet morally suspect (Martin, 2025). As such, people may view men as less deserving of compassion, protection, or moral regard. Indeed, empirical research shows that people are more willing to torture, kill, or punish men than women, particularly in contexts involving criminal justice or war (Fiske & Rai, 2014; Glick & Fiske, 2001). Indeed, men are seen as dangerous, impulsive, and untrustworthy, which erodes the likelihood of others forming close, supportive, or empathic relationships with them (Adnan et al., 2022; Reis et al., 1985). These perceptions not only reinforce gendered expectations of toughness and isolation but also undermine men’s access to care, understanding, and connection.

Together, this research suggests that men are seen as more object-like and animalistic, and thus, that people feel less empathy for men and see them as both more disposable and with a more limited set of needs. Consequently, people offer less support to men. These stereotypes certainly affect the way people see, treat, and engage with men. Consider, for example, why research in organizational behavior has almost exclusively focused on women’s disadvantages: It may be that the association between men and masculinity leads to less empathy and concern for the problems men face.

Masculinity in organizations and societal cultures

Masculinity exists at an individual level—represented by traits, behavior, and expectations—but it also exists at a collective level—represented by societal cultures, structures, and institutions.

As noted, organizations and societies have been shaped by men for men, rewarding masculine behavior and privileging men. However, masculine defaults, in both organizations and societies, breeds both benefits and costs for the people—not only men—within them.

Masculine values, norms, and behaviors can offer firms and nations strategic advantages that enhance performance and competitiveness. Masculine qualities such as *power*, *ambition*, *toughness*, *independence*, and *dominance* are often viewed as drivers of organizational growth, success, and opportunity (Porter, 1990). For instance, firm-level characteristics like self-reliance and power are positively associated with improved performance outcomes (Hillman et al., 2009; Pfeffer & Salancik, 1978). Likewise, a masculine orientation toward risk-taking can enable organizations to pursue bold, high-reward strategies. Firms that engage in riskier strategic decisions—such as appointing outsider CEOs—are more likely to experience extreme performance outcomes, including dramatic gains (but also potential failures, like bankruptcy; Burkhard et al., 2022; Quigley et al., 2019). Ambition similarly fuels organizational success by motivating the pursuit of challenging goals and fostering the development of competitive strategies. The status derived from such achievement can itself become a strategic asset: high-status organizations signal quality and opportunity to external audiences, thereby attracting and retaining top talent (Bidwell et al., 2015). Relatedly, for some men, working in a masculine culture leads to greater engagement, sense of meaning, and potential for success (Matos et al., 2018; Glick et al.,

2018).

Yet while masculine cultural elements can, in moderation, promote achievement and innovation, they can also produce significant downsides when taken to excess.

The downsides of masculinity for organizational cultures

Although elements of masculinity are seen to underlie growth, dominance, and opportunity (Porter, 1990), research on masculine cultures also highlights the downsides of these aspects for organizational outcomes.

Some research has argued that many organizations reflect *Masculinity Contest Cultures* (MCC; Berdahl et al., 2018; Ely & Kimmel, 2018; Glick et al., 2018). Masculinity contest culture refers to organizational environments in which individuals are encouraged to display stereotypically masculine behaviors and attitudes, such as aggressiveness, independence, ambition, risk-taking, and dominance while also aggressively competing with and dominating others *within* the organization (Vial et al., 2022). Glick et al. (2018) laid out four dimensions of masculinity contest cultures that largely overlap with the dimensions laid out above: “putting work first” (i.e., ambition, work devotion), “showing no weakness” (i.e., stoicism), “having strength and stamina” (i.e., toughness), and “being dog-eat-dog” (i.e., risk-taking, aggression, dominance; Glick et al., 2018). Research has found that masculinity contest culture is related, for the most part, to a host of problems. In these cultures, work becomes a way to express one’s masculinity by requiring working long schedules (Blair-Loy, 2005), taking financial and ethical risks (Iacune, 2005; Meyerson et al., 2007), and competing against other employees (Roth, 2006). These dynamics have implications for organizational outcomes, team dynamics, and individual experience, as outlined below.

Consequences for teams. People who work in masculinity contest cultures report poor team dynamics and less psychological safety (Glick et al., 2018). For example, employees within masculinity contest cultures report feeling unsafe taking risks or making mistakes in their teams, having “toxic supervisors” (e.g., supervisors who deny responsibility for mistakes or have explosive outbursts), and experiencing workplace bullying (i.e., rumors, gossip) as well as sexual and ethnic harassment (i.e., sexist comments or racist jokes; Glick et al., 2018; Matos et al., 2018; Rawski & Workman-Stark, 2018). Indeed, organizations higher in masculinity contest cultures are less likely to be perceived as fair or inclusive, which has negative consequences for group performance and team satisfaction (Kuchynka et al., 2018; Yoo et al., 2025).

Consequences for individuals. These unfavorable team and organizational dynamics also create negative effects for individuals. First, an individual’s relationship to their work and organization is likely to deteriorate in hypercompetitive environments marked by toxic leadership, bullying, and harassment (Berdahl et al., 2018). And indeed, past research has shown exactly that. Masculinity contest cultures relate to negative individual experiences at work. That is, workers who reported higher levels of masculinity contest cultures were also more likely to report stress and burnout (i.e., being emotionally drained in their jobs), experience less organizational dedication and satisfaction, describe worse job performances, and report higher turnover intentions (Glick et al., 2018; Matos et al., 2018). Further, those who report working in masculinity contest cultures were also less likely to capitalize on organizational support like mental health resources (Yoo & Kim, 2025).

As noted, the benefits of masculinity are available to some men, not others, and research has found that for minority groups (e.g., women, racial minorities), masculinity contest cultures can have especially harmful effects. That is, people in masculinity contest cultures report more racist behavior, sexist remarks, and homophobia, ultimately leading to worse psychological and health outcomes (Glick et al., 2018).

Consequences for organizations. Many papers have been devoted to understanding the effects of masculinity contest cultures for leader-

follower dynamics, team experiences, and individual outcomes (see Berdahl et al., 2018; Glick et al., 2018; Matos et al., 2018). While much less research has focused on how these cultures affect profits or organizational success, masculinity contest cultures certainly put organizations at risk for dysfunctional dynamics (e.g., lower motivation, more burnout, higher turnover intentions), liability and risk (Rawski & Workman-Stark, 2018), accidents and errors (Ely & Meyerson, 2010), poorer self-reported performance among their employees (Glick et al., 2018) and poorer actual performance (Yoo et al., 2025). In short, masculinity contest cultures aren't just harmful to individuals—they actively erode the foundations of organizational success.

Consequences of masculinity for societal cultures

Masculine cultures also extend to societies at large. Indeed, as Cheryan and Markus argue, most societies reflect masculine defaults, meaning that masculinity is treated as normative, valued, and standard (Bem, 1993; Cheryan & Markus, 2020). These values shape the priorities, norms, and structures that a given society constructs and enacts. While masculine cultures have been said to underlie productive, creative, growth-oriented, and successful economies (Porter, 1990), these same aspects are also contributing to the greatest threats to humanity: A worsening climate crisis, significant refugee crises, growing wealth inequality, and swelling social unrest all represent growing concerns for our globally interconnected society. And yet, masculinity is seen as antithetical to cooperation, sustainability, and equality (Brough et al., 2016; Bloodhart & Swim, 2020). In many ways, endorsement and enforcement of masculinity may hinder our collective abilities to respond.

Many of the individual-level correlates of masculinity also extend to the societal level. For instance, research on *honor cultures* has documented regional expressions of masculine norms and their social consequences (Barnes et al., 2012; Crowder & Kimmelmeier, 2017; Cohen et al., 1996). Honor cultures are those cultures that place a unique emphasis on upholding and defending the reputation of oneself and one's family, with a particular focus on the importance of men in maintaining reputations for being competent providers and strong protectors (Cohen et al., 1996). Regions with honor cultures are more likely to suffer from the same consequences that this paper has been discussing for men: Both men and women in honor cultures are more likely to engage in risk-taking behavior and die of accidental deaths (e.g., car crashes; Barnes et al., 2012) as well as to not seek support for mental health problems and to self-harm (e.g., suicide; Crowder & Kimmelmeier, 2017). These beliefs about men and masculinity exist at a collective level and, as a consequence, harm the collective.

Similarly, current movements towards authoritarian rule may be directly linked to masculinity—and the devaluing of it over time (DiMuccio & Knowles, 2020). As Missouri State Senator, Josh Hawley recently said, “no menace to this nation is greater than the collapse of American manhood” (Lozado, 2023), and almost half of Americans agree that “American society has become too soft and feminine” (Cox et al., 2022). One response to a devalued manhood may be an increased demonstration of masculinity in politics, which can be accomplished by supporting risky or aggressive positions and the politicians who advocate for them. In the United States, we see this borne out in various ways: Masculine ideology relates to the approval of the Iraq War (Willer et al., 2013), voting for male politicians, and support for guns (Matson et al., 2019), military expansion, the death penalty, and torture (DiMuccio & Knowles, 2021). Thus, men's support for the use of force in the political domain, as well as the prioritization of men's status and traditional manhood, may help to explain their greater propensity to vote Republican and identify as conservative: The Republican Party has curated its platform around being “tough” and people view the Republican Party as the more masculine of the two major U.S. political parties (DiMuccio & Knowles, 2020). Indeed, views towards, and support for, masculinity has been called a primary predictor of support for authoritarian policies and

candidates (Fossett, 2023); masculine ideology was also one of the largest predictors of voting behavior in the 2016 and 2024 elections (Edsall, 2023; Vescio & Schermerhorn, 2021); and in the lab, threatening men's masculinity led to an increased desire for a masculine president, which predicted support for Donald Trump (Carian & Sobotka, 2018).

Masculinity operates not only as an individual identity but also as a collective force that shapes institutions and societies. Consequently, its costs reverberate beyond men themselves, influencing organizational effectiveness, national priorities, and global wellbeing. Addressing escalating societal problems, therefore, requires confronting masculinity as a structural and cultural force—not merely as an individual disposition.

When masculinity falters: what comes next

Thus far, this paper has examined masculinity—its simultaneous costs and harms—and the associated consequences for men and society more broadly. Over the last few decades, women have increasingly become associated with masculine traits (Eagly et al., 2020), and in turn, have reaped more of the benefits of masculinity than ever before: Women are more economically independent and successful than at any point in history—perhaps due to organizational and societal efforts that focus on and support women (McKinsey, 2025; Pew, 2023). The converse has not happened with men: Men are seen as less “feminine” than ever before (Eagly et al., 2020). Further, the associated costs have only increased: The number of men reporting loneliness, contemplating suicide, and engaging in self-harm are at historic highs (CDC, 2025; Cox, 2021). Men are more likely to rely on romantic partnership for support and meaning (Wahring et al., 2024); however, increasingly, women are more likely to search for (and find) connection and community outside romantic partnerships (Korducki, 2024). Many men report that the value of being a “man” has eroded (Cox et al., 2022). Yet, as noted, the very nature of masculinity prevents men from seeking social and psychological support to manage these social and societal changes. After all, men are less likely to be in therapy, have social support, or be encouraged to seek it out (Addis & Mahalik, 2003). Thus, without more research and thought on the relationship between men and masculinity, a reactionary response among men that attempts to reclaim and reinforce the value of masculinity seems inevitable.

To truly address the negative aspects of masculinity and its impact on men, more research is needed on these evolving gender dynamics—the shifting economic and romantic interdependence between men and women, the growing representation of women in domains of power, and the changing nature of human connection more broadly. While prior work has identified promising interventions, lasting change depends on clearer insight into both the costs of masculinity and the benefits that femininity may offer men as well as on understanding how such change can be enacted and sustained within organizational and societal contexts that are themselves deeply gendered. Thus, this paper echoes past work that calls for a research agenda that treats gender not as an individual difference, but as an organizing principle—one that shapes power structures and social dynamics, simultaneously privileging and constraining the men and women within them (Ely & Meyerson, 2000; Ely & Padavic, 2007).

Intervening on masculinity

Across the literature, the vast majority of research has focused on interventions to improve gender equality in organizations. As Ely and Meyerson (2000) note, most organizational research focuses on interventions that “fix the women” (i.e., interventions that enhance their masculinity), value the feminine (i.e., promote the unique skills women bring), or create equal opportunities (i.e., mitigate structural bias). However, leaving masculinity intact seems unlikely to lead to any significant organizational change.

Reframing masculinity. First, cultural narratives that reframe masculinity may be a good start. Public figures like Doug Emhoff and Lucas Kuncie have articulated alternative masculinities centered on protection, caregiving, and justice—narratives that resonate across political divides and can be leveraged to reframe “healthy” masculinity (Fossett, 2023). Others recommend moving away from dominant forms of masculinity and towards one that is termed a “caring masculinity” (Elliott, 2016; Hunter et al., 2017). That is, because there have been (some) changes in recent decades to the norms and expectations of men and the way they engage in the household and caregiving (see Hunter et al., 2017), there is potential to expand masculinity through fatherhood. As fathers, men are able to adopt what are viewed as traditionally feminine characteristics (e.g., emotional expression, sensitivity, interdependence; Elliott, 2016). Indeed, Connell (2005) notes that at any given time, one form of masculinity—rather than others—is culturally exalted, and although those in power certainly uphold dominant forms of masculinity, other exemplars—such as visible and idealized cultural figures (e.g., film characters, fantasy figures)—have the potential to intervene upon them. Others have recommended reframing help-seeking as courageous and proactive (Addis & Mahalik, 2003; Hammer et al., 2013). These paths may hold potential to change the model of how masculinity is understood and performed. With greater representation and enactment of other ways to be a “man” there lies the potential to shift the conception and value of masculinity.

Social learning and social norms. Social learning theory and developmental intergroup theory both emphasize that children learn gendered expectations through modeling, labeling, and reinforcement (Bussey & Bandura, 1999; Bigler & Liben, 2007). Thus, changing culture is not just about rewriting cultural scripts but also about shifting what is seen, rewarded, and celebrated in everyday interactions and smaller ecological systems (e.g., family, school; Bosson, 2025). Parents and teachers can consider monitoring their language to avoid teaching and reinforcing rigid norms of masculinity (e.g., “boys don’t cry”) and encouraging or correcting norms when boys enact typically feminine behavior (e.g., “it’s healthy to cry”). Boys could benefit from observing or engaging with a greater range of role-models, especially those who engage in more communal behaviors and careers, such as male nurses, teachers, or therapists (Croft et al., 2015). Indeed, a growing body of research demonstrates that gender norm resistance can be beneficial for boys’ friendships, well-being, and academic performance (Nielson et al., 2023; Way et al., 2014).

Many men pursue dominant, aggressive behavior because they (mis) perceive these behaviors to be rewarded (Bosson, 2025). Correcting normative misperceptions (e.g., that peers admire aggression) and modeling prosocial status behaviors can reduce dominance displays (Berkowitz et al., 2022; Frey et al., 2017). Such interventions may be effective because people often self-correct upon learning that peers disapprove of their dominant behavior (Berkowitz et al., 2022) while social modeling and social skills training can teach masculine individuals how to achieve dominance goals via more prosocial, nonaggressive methods.

Reducing Defensiveness. One way that masculine cultures and behaviors persist is through psychodynamic defenses—unconscious responses, such as denial, projection, and rationalization—that help men manage their anxieties and vulnerabilities. Intervening on masculinity thus entails disrupting these unconscious defenses (Mobasseri et al., 2024). As one example, precarious manhood argues that aggression stems from internal insecurity and perceived threats to identity (Bosson & Vandello, 2011); that is, men react aggressively when their masculine self-concept—an important basis of identity—feels endangered (Bosson, 2025). Thus, interventions that build gender identity confidence—via exposure to norm-defying role models (e.g., male nurses, stay-at-home fathers) and cultivating resistance mindsets—can help individuals reject rigid gender scripts and embrace more authentic, flexible forms of masculinity (Nielson et al., 2023; Stanaland et al., 2024). Further, mindfulness training may help these individuals remain non-defensive

in the face of gender threats, thereby reducing their likelihood of responding aggressively (Heppner et al., 2008). Finally, *self-affirmation*—a process by which individuals reflect on their core values—has been shown to mitigate aggression. For instance, Fowler and Geers (2017) found that men who self-affirmed did not express the same toughness or aggression when their masculinity was threatened; however, ensuring that other sources of identity and self-worth are also affirmed (i.e., not just traditional masculine ones) is imperative.

It might also be useful to find avenues for men to find healthy ways to understand and process emotion and seek help to do so when needed. Previous research has found that engaging men in mental health services, strengthening social support networks, and offering interventions that challenge masculine norms yielded a host of mental health benefits (Kim & Yu, 2023). Past work highlights the potential to provide men with opportunities to express and share their feelings with other men in small groups (Kim & Yu, 2023; Hammer et al., 2013), noting that men benefit from this experience since it provides the shared experience and mutual respect required to destigmatize vulnerability and emotionality in men. As one example, Kiselica and Kiselica (2014) described a group in which fathers brainstormed ways to handle common problems, which gave the group the opportunity to express both agency and vulnerability at the same time.

Changing culture. Organizational-level interventions are essential, since changing individual behaviors without changing the surrounding climate often leads to limited or short-term impact (Onyeador et al., 2024). Masculinity contest cultures flourish in organizational climates that reward hierarchy, competition, and exclusion, so shifting these climates requires visible leadership, structural change, and cultural reframing.

To start, leaders can actively steer cultural change (Li et al., 2024). Indeed, past research has found that CEOs can lead cultural change in organizations through substantive and symbolic channels (Hermalin, 2012). For example, Post et al. (2022) found that after firms appoint female executives, their cultures become more open to change and less risk-seeking—thus, reducing elements of masculinity contest cultures. Similarly, Yoo et al. (2025) found that teams led by more communal male leaders were less likely to report being part of a masculinity contest culture and, ultimately, performed better as a consequence. Thus, by prioritizing feminine traits and values, both male and female leaders can steer cultures away from the problematic aspects of masculinity contest cultures—cultures that hinder both men and women. Indeed, much of research arguing for culture change has discussed communal values and practices as avenues to be more inclusive to women; however, men are encumbered by these same 24/7 work cultures (Padavic et al., 2020; Reid, 2015). Gendered narratives around cultural change may shield 24/7 work cultures from scrutiny and keep overwork—and the gendered assumptions beneath it—intact (Padavic et al., 2020).

In addition to leadership, structural and occupational features can amplify and attenuate masculinity contest cultures. For example, Reid et al. (2018) found that restricting shift hours and accommodating family responsibilities reduced problematic components of masculinity contest cultures. Further, strong anti-harassment messaging, consistent enforcement of norms, and leader-modeling of inclusive behavior significantly reduce gender-based aggression (Buchanan et al., 2014; Robotham & Cortina, 2021). Practices of instituting clear procedures for reporting, investigating, and remediating harassment and bullying as well as offering training in identifying and preventing these behaviors have been shown to be effective, as well (Buchanan et al., 2014).

Formal policies certainly matter, but so do informal norms: Inclusive climates are those in which employees perceive a shared commitment to equity and belonging. Even relatively small interventions—such as peer-led norm-setting or employee resource groups—can reduce aggression and promote inclusive masculinity when paired with leadership buy-in and accountability structures (Kosciw et al., 2022). As one example, Ely and Meyerson (2010) demonstrated the effectiveness of an organizational intervention that encouraged help-seeking and discouraged

masculine norms. This intervention reduced the organization's accident rate by 84%, suggesting that removing pressures to uphold masculine expectations while also removing penalties for men who deviate from these expectations can have positive, measurable effects on workplace goals.

Ultimately, by targeting masculinity as a social construction rather than a static identity, organizations can foster climates of connection, care, and community (Di Bianca & Mahalik, 2022). In this way, it may be possible to dismantle the gendered pressures that harm all employees—not just those who are marginalized by them but also those who are rewarded for reinforcing them.

Conclusion

This paper challenges the prevailing focus in organizational behavior research by turning the lens of gender analysis toward men. It critically examines how the same structures that advantage men can also constrain them. Drawing on psychological, sociological, and organizational research, it shows how masculinity shapes not only men's opportunities and behaviors but also their emotional health, relationships, and well-being. Paradoxically, masculinity is both a benefit and a burden. It is a double-edged sword: what elevates men in the workplace is also what harms them in life.

CRedit authorship contribution statement

Seung Joo Yoo: Conceptualization, Writing – review & editing.
Ashley Martin: Conceptualization, Writing – original draft, Writing – review & editing.

Declaration of Competing Interest

None.

Data availability

No data was used for the research described in the article.

References

- Abbey, E. (1989). *A voice crying in the wilderness: Notes from a secret journal*. New York, NY: St. Martin's Press.
- Abele, A. E., & Wojciszke, B. (2007). Agency and communion from the perspective of self versus others. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 93(5), 751–763.
- Addis, M. E., & Mahalik, J. R. (2003). Men, masculinity, and the contexts of help seeking. *American Psychologist*, 58(1), 5–14.
- Adnan, W., Arin, K., Charness, G., Lacomba, J., & Lagos, F. (2022). Which social categories matter to people: An experiment. *Journal of Economic Behavior & Organization*, 193, 125–145.
- Amato, F. J. (2012). The relationship of violence to gender role conflict and conformity to masculine norms in a forensic sample. *The Journal of Men's Studies*, 20(3), 187–208.
- Anderson, C., & Bushman, B. (2002). Human aggression. *Annual Review of Psychology*, 53(1), 27–51.
- Archer, J. (2019). The reality and evolutionary significance of human psychological sex differences. *Biological Reviews*, 94(4), 1381–1415.
- Aron, A., & Aron, E. N. (1997). Self-expansion motivation and including other in the self. In S. Duck (Ed.), *Handbook of personal relationships: Theory research and interventions* (2nd ed., pp. 251–270). London: Wiley.
- Ashford, S. J., Blatt, R., & VandeWalle, D. (2003). Reflections on the looking glass: A review of research on feedback-seeking behavior in organizations. *Journal of Management*, 29(6), 773–799.
- Baker Jr, M. D., & Maner, J. K. (2009). Male risk-taking as a context-sensitive signaling device. *Journal of Experimental Social Psychology*, 45(5), 1136–1139.
- Barber, B., & Odean, T. (1999). Do investors trade too much. *American Economic Review*, 89(5), 262.
- Bareket, O., & Fiske, S. T. (2023). A systematic review of the ambivalent sexism literature: Hostile sexism protects men's power; benevolent sexism guards traditional gender roles. *Psychological Bulletin*, 149(11–12), 637.
- Barnes, C. D., Brown, R. P., & Tamborski, M. (2012). Living dangerously: Culture of honor, risk-taking, and the nonrandomness of "accidental" deaths. *Social Psychological and Personality Science*, 3(1), 100–107.
- Bastian, B., & Haslam, N. (2010). Excluded from humanity: The dehumanizing effects of social ostracism. *Journal of Experimental Social Psychology*, 46(1), 107–113.
- Belmi, P., & Schroeder, J. (2021). Human "resources"? Objectification at work. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 120(2), 384–417.
- Bem, S. L. (1974). The measurement of psychological androgyny. *Journal of Consulting and Clinical Psychology*, 42(2), 155–162.
- Bem, S. L. (1993). *The lenses of gender: Transforming the debate on sexual inequality*. Yale University Press.
- Benard, S., & Correll, S. J. (2010). Normative discrimination and the motherhood penalty. *Gender & Society*, 24, 616–646.
- Berdahl, J. L., Cooper, M., Glick, P., Livingston, R. W., & Williams, J. C. (2018). Work as a masculinity contest. *Journal of Social Issues*, 74(3), 422–448.
- Berger, J. M., Levant, R., McMillan, K. K., Kelleher, W., & Sellers, A. (2005). Impact of Gender Role Conflict, Traditional Masculinity Ideology, Alexithymia, and Age on Men's Attitudes Toward Psychological Help Seeking. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 6(1), 73–78.
- Berke, D. S., & Zeichner, A. (2016). Man's heaviest burden: A review of contemporary paradigms and new directions for understanding and preventing masculine aggression. *Social and Personality Psychology Compass*, 10(2), 83–91.
- Berke, D. S., Reidy, D. E., Miller, J. D., & Zeichner, A. (2017). Take it like a man: Gender-threatened men's experience of gender role discrepancy, emotion activation, and pain tolerance. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 18(1), 62–69.
- Berke, D., Reidy, D., & Zeichner, A. (2018). Masculinity, emotion regulation, and psychopathology: A critical review and integrated model. *Clinical Psychology Review*, 66, 106–116.
- Berke, D. S., Reidy, D. E., Gentile, B., & Zeichner, A. (2019). Masculine discrepancy stress, emotion-regulation difficulties, and intimate partner violence. *Journal of Interpersonal Violence*, 34(6), 1163–1182.
- Berke, D. S., Wilson, L., Moulso, E., Speir, Z., & Zeichner, A. (2015). Isolating the gendered component of men's physical aggression. *Sex Roles*, 72, 509–520.
- Berkowitz, A. D., Bogen, K. W., Lopez, R. J. M., Mulla, M. M., & Orchowski, L. M. (2022). The social norms approach as a strategy to prevent violence perpetrated by men and boys: A review of the literature. *Engaging Boys and Men in Sexual Assault Prevention*, 149–181.
- Bidwell, M., Won, S., Barbulescu, R., & Mollick, E. (2015). I used to work at Goldman Sachs! How firms benefit from organizational status in the market for human capital. *Strategic Management Journal*, 36(8), 1164–1173.
- Bigler, R. S., & Liben, L. S. (2007). Developmental intergroup theory: Explaining and reducing children's social stereotyping and prejudice. *Current Directions in Psychological Science*, 16(3), 162–166.
- Blair-Loy, M. (2005). *Competing devotions: Career and family among women executives*. Harvard University Press.
- Bloodhart, B., & Swim, J. K. (2020). Sustainability and consumption: What's gender got to do with it? *Journal of Social Issues*, 76(1), 101–113.
- Bosson, J. K. (2025). Gender identity and aggression. *Annual Review of Psychology*, 76, 635–661.
- Bosson, J. K., & Vandello, J. A. (2011). Precarious manhood and its links to action and aggression. *Current Directions in Psychological Science*, 20(2), 82–86.
- Bosson, J. K., Prewitt-Freilino, J. L., & Taylor, J. N. (2005). Role rigidity: A problem of identity misclassification? *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 89(4), 552–565.
- Bosson, J. K., Vandello, J. A., Burnaford, R. M., Weaver, J. R., & Arzu Wasti, S. (2009). Precarious manhood and displays of physical aggression. *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin*, 35(5), 623–634.
- Brescoll, V. L. (2016). Leading with their hearts? How gender stereotypes of emotion lead to biased evaluations of female leaders. *The Leadership Quarterly*, 27(3), 415–428.
- Brescoll, V. L., Glass, J., & Sedlovskaya, A. (2013). Ask and ye shall receive? The dynamics of employer-provided flexible work options and the need for public policy. *Journal of Social Issues*, 69(2), 367–388.
- Britton, D. M., & Logan, L. (2008). Gendered organizations: Progress and prospects. *Sociology Compass*, 2(1), 107–121.
- Brody, L., & Hall, J. A. (2008). Gender and emotion in context. *Handbook of emotions*, 3, 395–408.
- Brough, A. R., Wilkie, J. E., Ma, J., Isaac, M. S., & Gal, D. (2016). Is eco-friendly unmanly? The green-feminine stereotype and its effect on sustainable consumption. *Journal of Consumer Research*, 43(4), 567–582.
- Buchanan, N. T., Settles, I. H., Hall, A. T., & O'Connor, R. C. (2014). A review of organizational strategies for reducing sexual harassment: Insights from the US military. *Journal of Social Issues*, 70(4), 687–702.
- Bureau of Labor Statistics. (2023). Civilian occupations with high fatal work injury rates. U.S. Department of Labor. (<https://www.bls.gov/charts/census-of-fatal-occupational-injuries/civilian-occupations-with-high-fatal-work-injury-rates.htm>).
- Bureau of Labor Statistics. (2015, July 2). Time spent working by full- and part-time status, gender, and location in 2014. U.S. Department of Labor. (<https://www.bls.gov/opub/ted/2015/time-spent-working-by-full-and-part-time-status-gender-and-location-in-2014.htm>).
- Burkley, M., Wong, Y. J., & Bell, A. C. (2016). The Masculinity Contingency Scale (MCS): Scale development and psychometric properties. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 17(2), 113–125.
- Burkhard, B., Sirén, C., van Essen, M., Grichnik, D., & Shepherd, D. A. (2022). Nothing ventured, nothing gained: A meta-analysis of CEO overconfidence, strategic risk taking, and performance. *Journal of Management*, 49(8), 2629–2666.
- Buss, D. M., & Schmitt, D. P. (1993). Sexual strategies theory: An evolutionary perspective on human mating. *Psychological Review*, 100, 204–232.
- Bussey, K., & Bandura, A. (1999). Social cognitive theory of gender development and differentiation. *Psychological Review*, 106(4), 676–713.

- Brannon, R. (1976). The male sex role: Our culture's blueprint for manhood and what it's done for us lately. In D. David, & R. Brannon (Eds.), *The forty-nine percent majority: The male sex role* (pp. 1–49). Reading, MA: Addison-Wesley.
- Byrnes, J. P., Miller, D. C., & Schafer, W. D. (1999). Gender differences in risk taking: A meta-analysis. *Psychological Bulletin*, 125(3), 367–683.
- Carian, E. K., & Sobotka, T. C. (2018). Playing the Trump card: Masculinity threat and the US 2016 presidential election. *Socius*, 4, Article 2378023117740699.
- Carswell, K. L., Muise, A., Harasymchuk, C., Horne, R. M., Visserman, M. L., & Impett, E. A. (2021). Growing desire or growing apart? Consequences of personal self-expansion for romantic passion. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 121(2), 354–377.
- Catalyst (2020, October 13). Quick take: Women in management. Catalyst. (<https://www.catalyst.org/research/women-in-management/>).
- Centers for Disease Control and Prevention. (2025, March 26). Suicide data and statistics. U.S. Department of Health and Human Services. (<https://www.cdc.gov/suicide/facts/data.html>).
- Chaplin, T. M., & Aldao, A. (2013). Gender differences in emotion expression in children: a meta-analytic review. *Psychological Bulletin*, 139(4), 735–765.
- Chaplin, T. M., Cole, P. M., & Zahn-Waxler, C. (2005). Parental socialization of emotion expression: gender differences and relations to child adjustment. *Emotion*, 5(1), 80–88.
- Cheng, J. T., Tracy, J. L., Foulsham, T., Kingstone, A., & Henrich, J. (2013). Two ways to the top: evidence that dominance and prestige are distinct yet viable avenues to social rank and influence. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 104(1), 103–125.
- Cheryan, S., & Markus, H. R. (2020). Masculine defaults: Identifying and mitigating hidden cultural biases. *Psychological Review*, 127(6), 1022–1052.
- Cicone, M. V., & Ruble, D. N. (1978). Beliefs about males. *Journal of Social Issues*, 34(1), 5–16.
- Cohen, D., Nisbett, R. E., Bowdle, B. F., & Schwarz, N. (1996). Insult, aggression, and the southern culture of honor: An experimental ethnography. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 70(5), 945–960.
- Connell, R. W. (2005). *Masculinities* (2nd ed.). Sydney: Allen & Unwin.
- Connell, R. W., & Messerschmidt, J. W. (2005). Hegemonic masculinity: Rethinking the concept. *Gender & Society*, 19(6), 829–859.
- Connell, R. W. (1987). *Gender and Power*. Stanford: Stanford University Press.
- Correll, S. J. (2004). Constraints into preferences: Gender, status, and emerging career aspirations. *American Sociological Review*, 69(1), 93–113.
- Correll, S. J., Benard, S., & Paik, I. (2007). Getting a job: is there a motherhood penalty? *American Journal of Sociology*, 112, 1297–1339.
- Costrich, N., Feinstein, J., Kidder, L., Marecek, J., & Pascale, L. (1975). When stereotypes hurt: Three studies of penalties for sex-role reversals. *Journal of Experimental Social Psychology*, 11(6), 520–530.
- Cottrell, C. A., & Neuberg, S. L. (2005). Different emotional reactions to different groups: a sociofunctional threat-based approach to "prejudice". *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 88(5), 770–789.
- Courtenay, W. H. (2000). Constructions of masculinity and their influence on men's well-being: a theory of gender and health. *Social Science Medicine*, 50(10), 1385–1401.
- Coyle, E. F., Fulcher, M., & Trübutschek, D. (2016). Sissies, mama's boys, and tomboys: Is children's gender nonconformity more acceptable when nonconforming traits are positive? *Archives of Sexual Behavior*, 45, 1827–1838.
- Cox, D.A. (2021). The state of American friendship: Change, challenges, and loss. Survey Center on American Life. Retrieved from: (<https://www.americansurveycenter.org/research/the-state-of-american-friendship-change-challenges-and-loss/>).
- Cox, D.A., Lee, B. & Popky, D. (April 27, 2022). Politics, Sex, and Sexuality: The Growing Gender Divide in American Life. Survey Center on American Life. Retrieved from: (<https://www.americansurveycenter.org/research/march-2022-aps/>).
- Croft, A., Schmader, T., & Block, K. (2015). An underexamined inequality: Cultural and psychological barriers to men's engagement with communal roles. *Personality and Social Psychology Review*, 19(4), 343–370.
- Croson, R., & Gneezy, U. (2009). Gender differences in preferences. *Journal of Economic Literature*, 47(2), 448–474.
- Crowder, M. K., & Kimmelmeier, M. (2017). New insights on cultural patterns of suicide in the United States: The role of honor culture. *Cross-Cultural Research*, 51(5), 521–548.
- Di Bianca, M., & Mahalik, J. R. (2022). A relational-cultural framework for promoting healthy masculinities. *American Psychologist*, 77(3), 321–332.
- Diekmann, A. B., & Eagly, A. H. (2000). Stereotypes as dynamic constructs: Women and men of the past, present, and future. *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin*, 26(10), 1171–1188.
- Diener, E., & Seligman, M. E. (2002). Very happy people. *Psychological Science*, 13(1), 81–84.
- DiMuccio, S. H., & Knowles, E. D. (2020). The political significance of fragile masculinity. *Current Opinion in Behavioral Sciences*, 34, 25–28.
- DiMuccio, S. H., & Knowles, E. D. (2021). Precarious manhood predicts support for aggressive policies and politicians. *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin*, 47(7), 1169–1187.
- Dolan, K. A. (2014). *When does gender matter? Women candidates and gender stereotypes in American elections*. Oxford University Press.
- Duckworth, A., & Gross, J. J. (2014). Self-control and grit: Related but separable determinants of success. *Current Directions in Psychological Science*, 23(5), 319–325.
- Duckworth, A. L., Peterson, C., Matthews, M. D., & Kelly, D. R. (2007). Grit: Perseverance and passion for long-term goals. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 92(6), 1087–1101.
- Eagly, A. H., & Karau, S. J. (2002). Role congruity theory of prejudice toward female leaders. *Psychological Review*, 109(3), 573–598.
- Eagly, A., Eaton, A., Rose, S., Riger, S., & McHugh, M. (2012). Feminism and psychology: analysis of a half-century of research on women and gender. *American Psychologist*, 67(3), 211–230.
- Eagly, A. H., & Mladinic, A. (1989). Gender stereotypes and attitudes toward women and men. *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin*, 15(4), 543–558.
- Eagly, A. H., Mladinic, A., & Otto, S. (1991). Are women evaluated more favorably than men? An analysis of attitudes, beliefs, and Emotions. *Psychology of Women Quarterly*, 15(2), 203–216.
- Eagly, A. H., Nater, C., Miller, D. I., Kaufmann, M., & Sczesny, S. (2020). Gender stereotypes have changed: A cross-temporal meta-analysis of US public opinion polls from 1946 to 2018. *American Psychologist*, 75(3), 301–315.
- Eckel, C. C., & Grossman, P. J. (2002). Sex differences and statistical stereotyping in attitudes toward financial risk. *Evolution and Human Behavior*, 23(4), 281–295.
- Edsall, T.B. (July 26, 2023). Democrats and republicans are living in different worlds. *New York Times*. Retrieved from: (<https://www.nytimes.com/2023/07/26/opinion/masculinity-gender-gap-2024.html>).
- Ellemers, N. (2018). Gender stereotypes. *Annual Review of Psychology*, 69(1), 275–298.
- Elliott, K. (2016). Caring masculinities: Theorizing an emerging concept. *Men and Masculinities*, 19(3), 240–259.
- Ely, R. J., & Meyerson, D. E. (2000). Theories of gender in organizations: A new approach to organizational analysis and change. *Research in Organizational Behavior*, 22, 103–151.
- Ely, R. J., & Meyerson, D. E. (2010). An organizational approach to undoing gender: The unlikely case of offshore oil platforms. *Research in Organizational Behavior*, 30, 3–34.
- Ely, R. J., & Kimmel, M. (2018). Thoughts on the workplace as a masculinity contest. *Journal of Social Issues*, 74(3), 628–634.
- Ely, R., & Padavic, I. (2007). A feminist analysis of organizational research on sex differences. *Academy of Management Review*, 32(4), 1121–1143.
- FeldmanHall, O., Dalgleish, T., Evans, D., Navrady, L., Tedeschi, E., & Mobbs, D. (2016). Moral chivalry: Gender and harm sensitivity predict costly altruism. *Social Psychology and Personality Science*, 7(6), 542–551.
- Fiske, A. P., & Rai, T. S. (2014). *Virtuous violence: Hurting and killing to create, sustain, end, and honor social relationships*. Cambridge University Press.
- Fiske, S. T., & Berdahl, J. (2007). Social power. *Social psychology: Handbook of Basic Principles*, 2, 678–692.
- Fossett, K. (July 14, 2023). The Best Way to Find Out If Someone Is a Trump Voter? Ask Them What They Think About Manhood. *Politico*. Retrieved from: (<https://www.politico.com/news/magazine/2023/07/14/masculinity-polling-00105414>).
- Fowler, S. L., & Geers, A. L. (2017). Does trait masculinity relate to expressing toughness? The effects of masculinity threat and self-affirmation in college men. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 18(2), 176–186.
- Fredrickson, B. L., & Roberts, T. A. (1997). Objectification theory: Toward understanding women's lived experiences and mental health risks. *Psychology of Women Quarterly*, 21(2), 173–206.
- Frey, K. S., Strong, Z. H., & Onyewuenyi, A. C. (2017). Individual and class norms differentially predict proactive and reactive aggression: A functional analysis. *Journal of Educational Psychology*, 109(2), 178–190.
- Gaia, A. C. (2013). The role of gender stereotypes in the social acceptability of the expression of intimacy. *The Social Science Journal*, 50(4), 591–602.
- Galinsky, A. D., Gruenfeld, D. H., & Magee, J. C. (2003). From power to action. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 85(3), 453–466.
- Gilmore, D. (1990). *Manhood in the making: Cultural concepts of masculinity*. Yale University Press.
- Gino, F., Wilmut, C. A., & Brooks, A. W. (2015). Compared to men, women view professional advancement as equally attainable, but less desirable. *Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences*, 112(40), 12354–12359.
- Glick, P., Berdahl, J. L., & Alonso, N. M. (2018). Development and validation of the masculinity contest culture scale. *Journal of Social Issues*, 74(3), 449–476.
- Glick, P., Lameiras, M., Fiske, S. T., Eckes, T., Masser, B., Volpato, C., ... Wells, R. (2004). Bad but bold: Ambivalent attitudes toward men predict gender inequality in 16 nations. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 86(5), 713–728.
- Glick, P., & Fiske, S. T. (2001). An ambivalent alliance: Hostile and benevolent sexism as complementary justifications for gender inequality. *American Psychologist*, 56(2), 109–118.
- Goff, P. A., Eberhardt, J. L., Williams, M. J., & Jackson, M. C. (2008). Not yet human: Implicit knowledge, historical dehumanization, and Black males. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 94(2), 292–306.
- Good, G. E., & Wood, P. K. (1995). Male gender role conflict, depression, and help seeking: Do college men face double jeopardy? *Journal of Counseling & Development*, 74(1), 70–75.
- Good, G. E., Dell, D. M., & Mintz, L. B. (1989). Male role and gender role conflict: Relations to help seeking in men. *Journal of Counseling Psychology*, 36(3), 295–300.
- Green, J. D., Kearns, J. C., Ledoux, A., Addis, M. E., & Marx, B. (2018). The association between masculinity and nonsuicidal self-injury. *American Journal of Men's Health*, 12(1), 30–40.
- Green, J. D., & Jakupcak, M. (2016). Masculinity and men's self-harm behaviors: Implications for non-suicidal self-injury disorder. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 17(2), 147–155.
- Grisevicius, V., Tybur, J. M., Gangestad, S. W., Perea, E. F., Shapiro, J. R., & Kenrick, D. T. (2009). Aggress to impress: Hostility as an evolved context-dependent strategy. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 96(5), 980.
- Hammer, J. H., Vogel, D. L., & Heimerdinger-Edwards, S. R. (2013). Men's help seeking: Examination of differences across community size, education, and income. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 14(1), 65–75.
- Harris, C. R., & Jenkins, M. (2006). Gender differences in risk assessment: Why do Women take fewer risks than men? *Judgment and Decision Making*, 1(1), 48–63.

- Haslam, N. (2006). Dehumanization: An integrative review. *Personality and Social Psychology Review*, 10(3), 252–264.
- Haslam, N., & Loughnan, S. (2014). Dehumanization and inhumanization. *Annual Review of Psychology*, 65(1), 399–423.
- Hays, S. (1996). *The Cultural Contradictions of Motherhood*. New Haven: Yale University Press.
- Heilman, M. E. (2001). Description and prescription: How gender stereotypes prevent women's ascent up the organizational ladder. *Journal of Social Issues*, 57(4), 657–674.
- Heilman, M. E. (2012). Gender stereotypes and workplace bias. *Research in Organizational Behavior*, 32, 113–135.
- Heilman, M. E., & Eagly, A. H. (2008). Gender stereotypes are alive, well, and busy producing workplace discrimination. *Industrial and Organizational Psychology*, 1(4), 393–398.
- Heilman, M. E., & Wallen, A. S. (2010). Wimpy and undeserving of respect: Penalties for men's gender-inconsistent success. *Journal of Experimental Social Psychology*, 46(4), 664–667.
- Heilman, R. M., Crijan, L. G., Houser, D., Miclea, M., & Miu, A. C. (2010). *Emotion regulation and decision making under risk and uncertainty*. *Emotion*, 10(2), 257–265.
- Heppner, W. L., Kernis, M. H., Lakey, C. E., Campbell, W. K., Goldman, B. M., Davis, P. J., & Cascio, E. V. (2008). Mindfulness as a means of reducing aggressive behavior: Dispositional and situational evidence. *Aggressive Behavior: Official Journal of the International Society for Research on Aggression*, 34(5), 486–496.
- Herek, G. M. (1986). On heterosexual masculinity: Some psychological consequences of the social construction of gender and sexuality. *American Behavioral Scientist*, 29(5), 563–577.
- Hermalin, B. E. (2012). Leadership and corporate culture. In R. S. Gibbons, & J. Roberts (Eds.), *Handbook of Organizational Economics* (pp. 432–478). Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- Hess, U., David, S., & Hareli, S. (2016). Emotional restraint is good for men only: The influence of emotional restraint on perceptions of competence. *Emotion*, 16(2), 208–213.
- Hillman, A. J., Withers, M. C., & Collins, B. J. (2009). Resource dependence theory: A review. *Journal of Management*, 35(6), 1404–1427.
- Hoffmann, D. E., & Tarzian, A. J. (2001). The girl who cried pain: a bias against women in the treatment of pain. *Journal of Law, Medicine Ethics*, 29(1), 13–27.
- Holt-Lunstad, J., Smith, T. B., & Layton, J. B. (2010). Social relationships and mortality risk: a meta-analytic review. *PLoS Medicine*, 7(7), Article e1000316.
- Hunter, S. C., Riggs, D. W., & Augoustinos, M. (2017). Hegemonic masculinity versus a caring masculinity: Implications for understanding primary caregiving fathers. *Social and Personality Psychology Compass*, 11(3), Article e12307.
- Husaini, B. A., Moore, S. T., & Cain, V. A. (1994). Psychiatric symptoms and help-seeking behavior among the elderly: An analysis of racial and gender differences. *Journal of Gerontological Social Work*, 21(3–4), 177–196.
- Iacuone, D. (2005). "Real men are tough guys": Hegemonic masculinity and safety in the construction industry. *The Journal of Men's Studies*, 13(2), 247–266.
- IWPR: 2024, March 7). New report: Women earn less than men in all occupations, even ones commonly held by women. (<https://iwpr.org/new-report-women-earn-less-than-men-in-all-occupations-even-ones-commonly-held-by-women/>).
- Jakupcak, M., Tull, M. T., & Roemer, L. (2005). Masculinity, Shame, and Fear of Emotions as Predictors of Men's Expressions of Anger and Hostility. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 6(4), 275–284.
- Jewkes, R., Morrell, R., Hearn, J., Lundqvist, E., Blackbeard, D., Lindegger, G., & Götzen, L. (2015). Hegemonic masculinity: Combining theory and practice in gender interventions. *Culture, Health & Sexuality*, 17(sup2), 112–127.
- Joshi, A., Neely, B., Emrich, C., Griffiths, D., & George, G. (2015). Gender research in AMJ: an overview of five decades of empirical research and calls to action: thematic issue on gender in management research. *Academy of Management Journal*, 58(5), 1459–1475.
- Judge, T. A., & Kammeyer-Mueller, J. D. (2012). On the value of aiming high: The causes and consequences of ambition. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, 97(4), 758–775.
- Kant, I. (Ed.). (1996). *The metaphysics of morals (M. Gregor, Trans.)*. Cambridge, UK: Cambridge University Press. <https://doi.org/10.1017/CBO9780511809644> (Original work published 1797).
- Kennedy, K. W., Steinfeldt, J. A., Eppich, A., Halterman, A. W., Kinne, A., & Zakrajsek, R. A. (2021). Football players' beliefs about masculinity, affection between men, and gay teammates. *Psychology of Men Masculinities*, 22(1), 16–25.
- Kilduff, M. (2000). Hegemonic masculinity and organizational behavior. *Handbook of Organizational Behavior, Revised and Expanded* (pp. 599–609). Routledge.
- Kilmartin, C. (2005). Depression in men: Communication, diagnosis and therapy. *Journal of Men's Health and Gender*, 2(1), 95–99.
- Kim, S., & Yu, S. (2023). Men's mental health and interventions tailored to masculinity: a scoping review. *Journal of Men's Health*, 19(11), 1–10.
- Kimmel, M. S. (1996). *Manhood in America: A Cultural History*. New York: Free Press.
- Kiselica, M., & Kiselica, A. (2014). The complicated worlds of adolescent fathers: Implications for clinical practice, public policy and research. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 15(3), 260–274.
- Kirkham, R., Liu, C., Wulundari, T., Aidman, E., Yucel, M., Wiley, J., & Albertella, L. (2025). Emotion regulation and coping in active military personnel: A systematic review. *Stress and Health: Journal of the International Society for the Investigation of Stress*, 41(3), Article e70036.
- Korducki, K.M. (November 21, 2024). Women's big economic milestone. *Business Insider*. (<https://www.businessinsider.com/american-women-swearing-off-marriage-datin-g-single-jobs-work-education-2024-11>).
- Kosciw, J.G., Clark, C.M., & Menard, L. (2022). The 2021 National School Climate Survey: The Experiences of LGBTQ+ Youth in Our Nation's Schools. A Report from GLSEN. *Gay, Lesbian and Straight Education Network (GLSEN)*.
- Kray, L. J., & Haselhuhn, M. P. (2012). Male pragmatism in negotiators' ethical reasoning. *Journal of Experimental Social Psychology*, 48(5), 1124–1131.
- Kring, A. M., & Gordon, A. H. (1998). Sex differences in emotion: expression, experience, and physiology. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 74(3), 686–703.
- Kuchynka, S. L., Bosson, J. K., Vandello, J. A., & Puryear, C. (2018). Zero-sum thinking and the masculinity contest: Perceived intergroup competition and workplace gender bias. *Journal of Social Issues*, 74(3), 529–550.
- Lerner, J. S., Li, Y., Valdesolo, P., & Kassam, K. S. (2015). Emotion and decision making. *Annual Review of Psychology*, 66(1), 799–823.
- Lerner, J. S., & Keltner, D. (2001). Fear, anger, and risk. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 81(1), 146–159.
- Levant, R. F., Hall, R. J., & Rankin, T. J. (2013). Male role norms inventory—short form (MRNI-SF): Development, confirmatory factor analytic investigation of structure, and measurement invariance across gender. *Journal of Counseling Psychology*, 60(2), 228–238.
- Levant, R. F., Graef, S. T., Smalley, K. B., Williams, C., & McMillan, N. (2008). Evaluation of the psychometric properties of the Male Role Norms Inventory-Adolescent (MRNI-A). *Boyhood Studies*, 2(1), 46–59.
- Levant, R. F., Wimer, D. J., Williams, C. M., Smalley, K. B., & Noronha, D. (2009). The relationships between masculinity variables, health risk behaviors and attitudes toward seeking psychological help. *International Journal of Men's Health*, 8(1), 3–21.
- Levant, R. F., & Fischer, J. (1998). The Male Role Norms Inventory. In C. M. Davis, W. H. Yarber, R. Bauserman, G. Schreer, & S. L. Davis (Eds.), *Sexuality-related measures: A compendium* (2nd ed, pp. 469–472). Newbury Park, CA: Sage.
- Levant, R. F., Richmond, K., Majors, R. G., Inclan, J. E., Rossello, J. M., Heesacker, M., ... Sellers, A. (2003). A multicultural investigation of masculinity ideology and alexithymia. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 4(2), 91–99.
- Li, X., Chen, G., & Shen, R. (2024). Steering the intangible wheel: Chief executive officer effect on corporate cultural change. *Organization Science*, 35(5), 1770–1794.
- Lippa, R. A. (2016). Biological influences on masculinity. In Y. J. Wong, & S. R. Wester (Eds.), *APA handbook of men and masculinities* (pp. 187–209). American Psychological Association.
- Locke, B. D., & Mahalik, J. R. (2005). Examining Masculinity Norms, Problem Drinking, and Athletic Involvement as Predictors of Sexual Aggression in College Men. *Journal of Counseling Psychology*, 52(3), 279–283.
- Loughnan, S., Haslam, N., Murnane, T., Vaes, J., Reynolds, C., & Suitner, C. (2010). Objectification leads to depersonalization: The denial of mind and moral concern to objectified others. *European Journal of Social Psychology*, 40(5), 709–717.
- Lozado, C. (June 1, 2023). Men have lost their way. Josh Hawley has thoughts about how to save them. *New York Times*. Retrieved from (<https://www.nytimes.com/2023/06/01/opinion/hawley-reeves-bly-men-masculinity.html>).
- Lucas, B. J., & Kteily, N. S. (2018). (Anti-) egalitarianism differentially predicts empathy for members of advantaged versus disadvantaged groups. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 114(5), 665.
- Luyt, R. (2005). The male attitude norms inventory-II: A measure of masculinity ideology in South Africa. *Men and Masculinities*, 8(2), 208–229.
- Lyness, K., & Heilman, M. (2006). When fit is fundamental: performance evaluations and promotions of upper-level female and male managers. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, 91(4), 777–785.
- Maass, A., Cadinu, M., Guarnieri, G., & Grasselli, A. (2003). Sexual harassment under social identity threat: The computer harassment paradigm. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 85(5), 853–870.
- Mahalik, J., Burns, S., & Syzdek, M. (2003). Masculinity and perceived normative health behaviors as predictors of men's health behaviors. *Social Science & Medicine*, 64(11), 2201–2209.
- Martin, A.E. (2025). Masculine objectification: How androcentrism dehumanizes men. Working Paper. Stanford University, Stanford, CA.
- Martin, A. E., & Slepian, M. L. (2021). The primacy of gender: Gendered cognition underlies the big two dimensions of social cognition. *Perspectives on Psychological Science*, 16(6), 1143–1158.
- Martin, A. E., & Slepian, M. L. (2025). The process of gendering: Gender as a verb. *Trends in Cognitive Science*, 29(1), 73–84.
- Martínez, C. A., Van Prooijen, J. W., & Van Lange, P. A. (2022). A threat-based hate model: How symbolic and realistic threats underlie hate and aggression. *Journal of Experimental Social Psychology*, 103, Article 104393.
- Marx, K. (1964). Pre-capitalist economic formations. Retrieved from (<https://www.marxists.org/archive/marx/works/1857/precapitalist/index.htm>). (Original work published 1857–1858).
- Matos, K., O'Neill, O., & Lei, X. (2018). Toxic leadership and the masculinity contest culture: How "win or die" cultures breed abusive leadership. *Journal of Social Issues*, 74(3), 500–528.
- Matson, K., Russell, T., & King, A. R. (2019). Gun enthusiasm, hypermasculinity, manhood honor, and lifetime aggression. *Journal of Aggression, Maltreatment Trauma*, 28(3), 369–383.
- Mattingly, B. A., & Lewandowski, Jr, G. W. (2013). The power of one: Benefits of individual self-expansion. *The Journal of Positive Psychology*, 8(1), 12–22.
- McKay, J. R., Rutherford, M. J., Cacciola, J. S., Kabasakalian-McKay, R., & Alterman, A. I. (1996). Gender differences in the relapse experiences of cocaine patients. *The Journal of Nervous and Mental Disease*, 184(10), 616–622.
- McKinsey (2025). The new face of wealth: The rise of the female investor. Retrieved from: (<https://www.mckinsey.com/industries/financial-services/our-insight/s/the-new-face-of-wealth-the-rise-of-the-female-investor>).

- Meier-Pesti, K., & Goetze, E. (2006). Masculinity and femininity as predictors of financial risk-taking: Evidence from a priming study on gender salience. *European Advances in Consumer Research*, 7, 45–46.
- Mendia, J., Zumeta, L. N., Cusi, O., Pascual, A., Alonso-Arbiol, I., Díaz, V., & Páez, D. (2024). Gender differences in alexithymia: Insights from an Updated Meta-Analysis. *Personality and Individual Differences*, 227(112710), 877–881.
- Meyerson, D., Ely, R., & Wernick, L. (2007). Disrupting gender, revising leadership. *Women and leadership: The State of Play and Strategies for Change*, 453–473.
- Mischel, W. (1970). Sex-typing and socialization. In P. H. Mussen (Ed.), *Carmichael's manual of child psychology* (pp. 3–72). New York, NY: Wiley.
- Mobasseri, S., Kahn, W. A., & Ely, R. J. (2024). Racial inequality in organizations: A systems psychodynamic perspective. *Academy of Management Review*, 49(4), 718–745.
- Moss-Racusin, C. A., Phelan, J. E., & Rudman, L. A. (2010). When men break the gender rules: status incongruity and backlash against modest men. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 11(2), 140–151.
- Moss-Racusin, C. A. (2014). Male backlash: Penalties for men who violate gender stereotypes. In *Gender in organizations* (pp. 247–269). Edward Elgar Publishing.
- Motro, D., & Ellis, A. P. (2017). Boys, don't cry: Gender and reactions to negative performance feedback. *Journal of Applied Psychology*, 102(2), 227–235.
- Nelson, S. K., Kushlev, K., English, T., Dunn, E. W., & Lyubomirsky, S. (2013). In defense of parenthood: Children are associated with more joy than misery. *Psychological Science*, 24(1), 3–10.
- Nielson, M. G., Martin, C. L., Rogers, L. O., Lindstrom Johnson, S., Miller, C. F., & Berendzen, H. (2023). Exploring young men's experience of resistance to masculine norms. *Emerging Adulthood*, 11(2), 365–379.
- Nolen-Hoeksema, S. (2012). Emotion regulation and psychopathology: The role of gender. *Annual Review of Clinical Psychology*, 8(1), 161–187.
- Nussbaum, M. C. (1999). *Sex and social justice*. Oxford University Press.
- OECD. (2024). *Work-life balance. OECD Better Life Index*. Retrieved May 31, 2025, from (<https://www.oecdbetterlifeindex.org/topics/work-life-balance/>).
- O'Dea, C. J., Bueno, A. M. C., & Saucier, D. A. (2017). Fight or flight: Perceptions of men who confront versus ignore threats to themselves and others. *Personality and Individual Differences*, 104, 345–351.
- O'Dea, C. J., Rapp, S., Archer, A., Jones, T. L., & Saucier, D. A. (2025). "Stand up for yourself!" Masculine honor beliefs and expectations for bullied youth. *Personality and Individual Differences*, 233, Article 112922.
- O'Neill, O. A., & Rothbard, N. P. (2017). Is love all you need? The effects of emotional culture, suppression, and work–family conflict on firefighter risk-taking and health. *Academy of Management Journal*, 60(1), 78–108.
- Onyeador, I. N., Mobasseri, S., McKinney, H. L., & Martin, A. E. (2024). A future for organizational diversity training: Mobilizing diversity science to improve effectiveness. *Academy of Management Perspectives*, 38(3), 392–414.
- Orehek, E., & Weaverling, C. G. (2017). On the nature of objectification: Implications of considering people as means to goals. *Perspectives on Psychological Science*, 12(5), 719–730.
- Padavic, I., Ely, R. J., & Reid, E. M. (2020). Explaining the persistence of gender inequality: The work–family narrative as a social defense against the 24/7 work culture. *Administrative Science Quarterly*, 65(1), 61–111.
- Padesky, C. A., & Hammen, C. L. (1981). Sex differences in depressive symptom expression and help-seeking among college students. *Sex Roles*, 7, 309–320.
- Payne, B. K. (2001). Prejudice and perception: the role of automatic and controlled processes in misperceiving a weapon. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 81(2), 181–192.
- Pecini, C., Guizzo, F., Bonache, H., Borges-Castells, N., Morera, M. D., & Vaes, J. (2023). Sexual objectification: Advancements and avenues for future research. *Current Opinion in Behavioral Sciences*, 50, Article 101261.
- Pew Research Center (2023). *The data on women leaders*. Retrieved from: (<https://www.pewresearch.org/social-trends/fact-sheet/the-data-on-women-leaders>).
- Pfeffer, J., & Salancik, G. R. (1978). *The external control of organizations: A resource dependence perspective*. New York: Harper & Row.
- Pitchbook & National Venture Capital Association (2016). *Pitchbook–NVCA 4Q 2016 venture monitor*. Retrieved from (https://files.pitchbook.com/pdf/4Q_2016_PitchBook_NVCA_Venture_Monitor.pdf).
- Pleck, J. H. (1981). *The myth of masculinity*. Cambridge, MA: MIT Press.
- Pleck, J. H. (1995). The gender role strain paradigm: An update. In R. F. Levant, & W. S. Pollack (Eds.), *A new psychology of men* (pp. 11–32). New York: Basic Books.
- Porter, M. E. (1990). *The competitive advantage of nations*. New York, NY: Free Press.
- Post, C., Lokshin, B., & Boone, C. (2022). What changes after women enter top management teams? A gender-based model of strategic renewal. *Academy of Management Journal*, 65(1), 273–303.
- Prentice, D. A., & Carranza, E. (2002). What women and men should be, shouldn't be, are allowed to be, and don't have to be: The contents of prescriptive gender stereotypes. *Psychology of Women Quarterly*, 26(4), 269–281.
- Prime, J., Moss-Racusin, C.A., & Foust-Cummings, H. (2009). Engaging men in gender initiatives: Stacking the deck for success. *Catalyst*.
- Quigley, T. J., Hambrick, D. C., Misangyi, V. F., & Rizzi, G. A. (2019). CEO selection as risk-taking: A new vantage on the debate about the consequences of insiders versus outsiders. *Strategic Management Journal*, 40(9), 1453–1470.
- Rawski, S. L., & Workman-Stark, A. (2018). Masculinity contest cultures in policing organizations and recommendations for training interventions. *Journal of Social Issues*, 74(3), 607–627.
- Reid, E. (2015). Embracing, passing, revealing, and the ideal worker image: How people navigate expected and experienced professional identities. *Organization Science*, 26(4), 997–1017.
- Reid, E. M., O'Neill, O., & Blair-Loy, M. (2018). Masculinity in male-dominated occupations: How teams, time, and tasks shape masculinity contests. *Journal of Social Issues*, 74(3), 579–606.
- Reidy, D. E., Brookmeyer, K. A., Gentile, B., Berke, D. S., & Zeichner, A. (2016). Gender role discrepancy stress, high-risk sexual behavior, and sexually transmitted disease. *Archives of Sexual Behavior*, 45, 459–465.
- Reidy, D. E., Smith-Darden, J. P., Vivolo-Kantor, A. M., Malone, C. A., & Kernsmith, P. D. (2018). Masculine discrepancy stress and psychosocial maladjustment: Implications for behavioral and mental health of adolescent boys. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 19(4), 560–569.
- Reidy, D. E., Berke, D. S., Gentile, B., & Zeichner, A. (2014). Man enough? Masculine discrepancy stress and intimate partner violence. *Personality and Individual Differences*, 68, 160–164.
- Reis, H. T., Senchak, M., & Solomon, B. (1985). Sex differences in the intimacy of social interaction: Further examination of potential explanations. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 48(5), 1204–1217.
- Ridgeway, C. L., & Correll, S. J. (2004). Motherhood as a status characteristic. *Journal of Social Issues*, 60(4), 683–700.
- Robertson, J. M., & Fitzgerald, L. F. (1992). Overcoming the masculine mystique: Preferences for alternative forms of assistance among men who avoid counseling. *Journal of Counseling Psychology*, 39(2), 240.
- Robotham, K., & Cortina, L. (2021). Promoting respect as a solution to workplace harassment. *Equality, Diversity and Inclusion: An International Journal*, 40(4), 410–429.
- Roth, M. L. (2006). *Selling women short: Gender and money on Wall Street*. Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.
- Rudman, L. A., & Glick, P. (2001). Prescriptive gender stereotypes and backlash toward agentic women. *Journal of Social Issues*, 57(4), 743–762.
- Rudman, L. A., & Phelan, J. E. (2008). Backlash effects for disconfirming gender stereotypes in organizations. *Research in Organizational Behavior*, 28, 61–79.
- Rudman, L. A., Moss-Racusin, C. A., Glick, P., & Phelan, J. E. (2012). Reactions to vanguards: Advances in backlash theory. In *Advances in Experimental Social Psychology*, 45 pp. 167–227. Academic Press.
- Rudman, L. A., & Mescher, K. (2012). Of animals and objects: Men's implicit dehumanization of women and likelihood of sexual aggression. *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin*, 38(6), 734–746.
- Rudman, L. A., Mescher, K., & Moss-Racusin, C. A. (2013). Reactions to gender egalitarian men: Perceived feminization due to stigma-by-association. *Group Processes & Intergroup Relations*, 16(5), 572–599.
- Rudman, L. A., & Mescher, K. (2013). Penalizing men who request a family leave: Is flexibility stigma a femininity stigma? *Journal of Social Issues*, 69(2), 322–340.
- Ryan, R. M., & Deci, E. L. (2000). Self-determination theory and the facilitation of intrinsic motivation, social development, and well-being. *American Psychologist*, 55(1), 68–78.
- Saucier, D. A., Stanford, A. J., Miller, S. S., Martens, A. L., Miller, A. K., Jones, T. L., ... Burns, M. D. (2016). Masculine honor beliefs: Measurement and correlates. *Personality and Individual Differences*, 94, 7–15.
- Schein, V. E. (2001). A global look at psychological barriers to women's progress in management. *Journal of Social Issues*, 57(4), 675–688.
- Schein, V. E., Mueller, R., Lituchy, T., & Liu, J. (1996). Think manager—think male: A global phenomenon? *Journal of Organizational Behavior*, 17(1), 33–41.
- Schlegel, R. J., Hicks, J. A., Arndt, J., & King, L. A. (2009). Thine own self: True self-concept accessibility and meaning in life. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 96(2), 473–490.
- Schrock, D., & Schwalbe, M. (2009). Men, masculinity, and manhood acts. *Annual Review of Sociology*, 35(1), 277–295.
- Schuh, S. C., Hernandez Bark, A. S., Van Quaquebeke, N., Hossiep, R., Frieg, P., & Van Dick, R. (2014). Gender differences in leadership role occupancy: The mediating role of power motivation. *Journal of Business Ethics*, 120, 363–379.
- Shnabel, N., Bar-Anan, Y., Kende, A., Bareket, O., & Lazar, Y. (2016). Help to perpetuate traditional gender roles: Benevolent sexism increases engagement in dependency-oriented cross-gender helping. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 110(1), 55–75.
- Sidanius, J., Pratto, F., & Bobo, L. (1994). Social dominance orientation and the political psychology of gender: A case of invariance? *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 67(6), 998–1011.
- Simon, R. W., & Nath, L. E. (2004). Gender and emotion in the United States: Do men and women differ in self-reports of feelings and expressive behavior? *American Journal of Sociology*, 109(5), 1137–1176.
- Smith, P. K., Jostmann, N. B., Galinsky, A. D., & Van Dijk, W. W. (2008). Lacking power impairs executive functions. *Psychological Science*, 19(5), 441–447.
- Spence, J. T., & Buckner, C. (2012). Masculinity and femininity: Defining the undefinable. *Gender, power, and communication in human relationships* (pp. 105–138). Routledge.
- Spence, J. T., & Helmreich, R. L. (1979). *Masculinity and femininity: Their psychological dimensions, correlates, and antecedents*. University of Texas Press.
- Stam, D., Van Knippenberg, D., Wisse, B., & Nederveen Pieterse, A. (2018). Motivation in words: Promotion and prevention-oriented leader communication in times of crisis. *Journal of Management*, 44(7), 2859–2887.
- Stanaland, A., Gaither, S., Gassman-Pines, A., Galvez-Cepeda, D., & Cimpian, A. (2024). Adolescent boys' aggressive responses to perceived threats to their gender typicality. *Developmental Science*, 27(6), Article e13544.
- Stanley, M. L., & Kay, A. (2024). Dissociations between animalistic and mechanistic dehumanization in the context of labor exploitation. *Journal of Experimental Social Psychology*, 115, Article 104665.

- Steinberg, M., & Diekmann, A. B. (2016). The double-edged sword of stereotypes of men. In Y. J. Wong, & S. R. Wester (Eds.), *APA handbook of men and masculinities* (pp. 433–456). American Psychological Association.
- Suinn, R. M. (2001). The terrible twos—anger and anxiety: Hazardous to your health. *American Psychologist*, 56(1), 27–36.
- Suls, J., & Bunde, J. (2005). Anger, anxiety, and depression as risk factors for cardiovascular disease: The problems and implications of overlapping affective dispositions. *Psychological Bulletin*, 131(2), 260–300.
- Tamres, L. K., Janicki, D., & Helgeson, V. S. (2002). Sex differences in coping behavior: A meta-analytic review and an examination of relative coping. *Personality and Social Psychology Review*, 6(1), 2–30.
- Taylor, S. E., Klein, L. C., Lewis, B. P., Gruenewald, T. L., Gurung, R. A. R., & Updegraff, J. A. (2000). Biobehavioral responses to stress in females: Tend-and-befriend, not fight-or-flight. *Psychological Review*, 107(3), 411–429.
- Terman, L. M., & Miles, C. C. (1936). *Sex and personality*. New Haven, CT: Yale University Press.
- Thom, B. (1986). Sex differences in help-seeking for alcohol problems—1. The barriers to help-seeking. *British Journal of Addiction*, 81(6), 777–788.
- Thompson, E. H., Pleck, J. H., & Ferrera, D. L. (1992). Men and masculinities: Scales for masculinity ideology and masculinity-related constructs. *Sex Roles*, 27, 573–607.
- Thompson Jr, E. H., & Pleck, J. H. (1986). The structure of male role norms. *American Behavioral Scientist*, 29(5), 531–543.
- Thompson, E. H., Jr., & Bennett, K. M. (2015). Measurement of masculinity ideologies: A (critical) review. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 16(2), 115–133.
- Turner, J. C., Hogg, M. A., Oakes, P. J., Reicher, S. D., & Wetherell, M. S. (1987). *Rediscovering the social group: A self-categorization theory*. Basil Blackwell.
- UCR; 2020, September). *Crime in the United States, 2019*. (<https://ucr.fbi.gov/crime-in-the-u.s/2019/crime-in-the-u.s.-2019>).
- Uskul, A. K., Cross, S. E., & Günsoy, C. (2023). The role of honour in intrapersonal, interpersonal, and intergroup processes. *Social and Personality Psychology Compass*, 17(1), Article e12719.
- UN Women. (2025, March 11). *Facts and figures: Women's leadership and political participation*. (<https://www.unwomen.org/en/articles/facts-and-figures/facts-and-figures-womens-leadership-and-political-participation>).
- USAFacts. (2025, March 21). *Do women live longer than men in the US?* (<https://usafacts.org/articles/do-women-live-longer-than-men-in-the-us/>).
- Vandello, J. A., & Bosson, J. K. (2013). Hard won and easily lost: A review and synthesis of theory and research on precarious manhood. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 14(2), 101–113.
- Vandello, J. A., Bosson, J. K., Cohen, D., Burnaford, R. M., & Weaver, J. R. (2008). Precarious manhood. *Journal of Personality and Social Psychology*, 95(6), 1325–1339.
- Vescio, T. K., & Schermerhorn, N. E. C. (2021). Hegemonic masculinity predicts 2016 and 2020 voting and candidate evaluations. *Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences*, 118(2).
- Vial, A. C., & Napier, J. L. (2018). Unnecessary frills: Communitas as a nice (but expendable) trait in leaders. *Frontiers in Psychology*, 9, Article 381384.
- Vial, A. C., Muradoglu, M., Newman, G. E., & Cimpian, A. (2022). An emphasis on brilliance fosters masculinity-contest cultures. *Psychological Science*, 33(4), 595–612.
- Viki, G. T., Osgood, D., & Phillips, S. (2013). Dehumanization and self-reported proclivity to torture prisoners of war. *Journal of Experimental Social Psychology*, 49(3), 325–328.
- Vincent, W., Parrott, D. J., & Peterson, J. L. (2011). Combined effects of masculine gender-role stress and sexual prejudice on anger and aggression toward gay men. *Journal of Applied Social Psychology*, 41(5), 1237–1257.
- Wade, J. C. (1998). Male reference group identity dependence: A theory of male identity. *The Counseling Psychologist*, 26(3), 349–383.
- Wahring, I. V., Simpson, J. A., & Van Lange, P. A. (2024). Romantic relationships matter more to men than to women. *Behavioral and Brain Sciences*, 1–64.
- Walther, A., Grub, J., Tsar, S., Ehler, U., Heald, A., Perrin, R., & Eggenberger, L. (2023). Status loss due to COVID-19, traditional masculinity, and their association with recent suicide attempts and suicidal ideation. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 24(1), 47–62.
- Ware, B. (2019). *The top five regrets of the dying: A life transformed by the dearly departing*. Hay House.
- Way, N., Cressen, J., Bodian, S., Preston, J., Nelson, J., & Hughes, D. (2014). "It might be nice to be a girl... Then you wouldn't have to be emotionless": Boys' resistance to norms of masculinity during adolescence. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 15(3), 241–252.
- Weber, E. U., Blais, A. R., & Betz, N. E. (2002). A domain-specific risk-attitude scale: Measuring risk perceptions and risk behaviors. *Journal of Behavioral Decision Making*, 15(4), 263–290.
- Weaver, J. R., Vandello, J. A., Bosson, J. K., & Burnaford, R. M. (2010). The proof is in the punch: Gender differences in perceptions of action and aggression as components of manhood. *Sex Roles*, 62, 241–251.
- Weaver, J. R., Vandello, J. A., & Bosson, J. K. (2013). Intrepid, imprudent, or impetuous? The effects of gender threats on men's financial decisions. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 14(2), 184–191.
- Weisbuch, M., Beal, D., & O'Neal, E. C. (1999). How masculine ought I be? Men's masculinity and aggression. *Sex Roles*, 40(7), 583–592.
- Wigfield, A., & Eccles, J. S. (1992). The development of achievement task values: A theoretical analysis. *Developmental Review*, 12(3), 265–310.
- Willer, R., Rogalin, C. L., Conlon, B., & Wojnowicz, M. T. (2013). Overdoing gender: A test of the masculine overcompensation thesis. *American Journal of Sociology*, 118(4), 980–1022.
- Williams, M. J., & Tiedens, L. Z. (2016). The subtle suspension of backlash: A meta-analysis of penalties for women's implicit and explicit dominance behavior. *Psychological Bulletin*, 142(2), 165–197.
- Wilson, M., & Daly, M. (1985). Competitiveness, risk taking, and violence: The young male syndrome. *Ethology and Sociobiology*, 6(1), 59–73.
- Wisch, A. F., Mahalik, J. R., Hayes, J. A., & Nutt, E. A. (1995). The impact of gender role conflict and counseling technique on psychological help seeking in men. *Sex Roles*, 33, 77–89.
- Wood, W., & Eagly, A. (2015). Two traditions of research on gender identity. *Sex Roles*, 73, 461–473.
- Wood, W., & Eagly, A. H. (2012). Biosocial construction of sex differences and similarities in behavior. *Advances in Experimental Social Psychology*, 46, 55–123.
- Wong, Y. J., Ho, M.-H. R., Wang, S.-Y., & Miller, I. S. K. (2017). Meta-analyses of the relationship between conformity to masculine norms and mental health-related outcomes. *Journal of Counseling Psychology*, 64(1), 80–93.
- World Bank. (2022, March 1). *Nearly 2.4 billion women globally don't have same economic rights as men*. (<https://www.worldbank.org/en/news/press-release/2022/03/01/nearly-2-4-billion-women-globally-don-t-have-same-economic-rights-as-men>).
- World Health Organization (2019). *Violence Info: Homicide*. (<https://apps.who.int/violence-info/homicide/>).
- Yoo, S. J., Kim, K., Ku, X., Hyun, S., & Ko, J. (2025). Gender-atypical male military leaders enhance followers' training performance. *Psychology of Men & Masculinities*, 26(3), 275–284.
- Yoo, S. J., & Kim, K. (2025). Culture colors mental health: How masculinity contest culture inhibits mental health benefit use. In *Academy of Management Proceedings* (p. 12871). Valhalla, NY 10595: Academy of Management.
- Zawadzki, M. J., Warner, L. R., & Shields, S. A. (2013). Sadness is believed to signal competence when displayed with passionate restraint. *Social Psychology*, 44(3), 219–230.